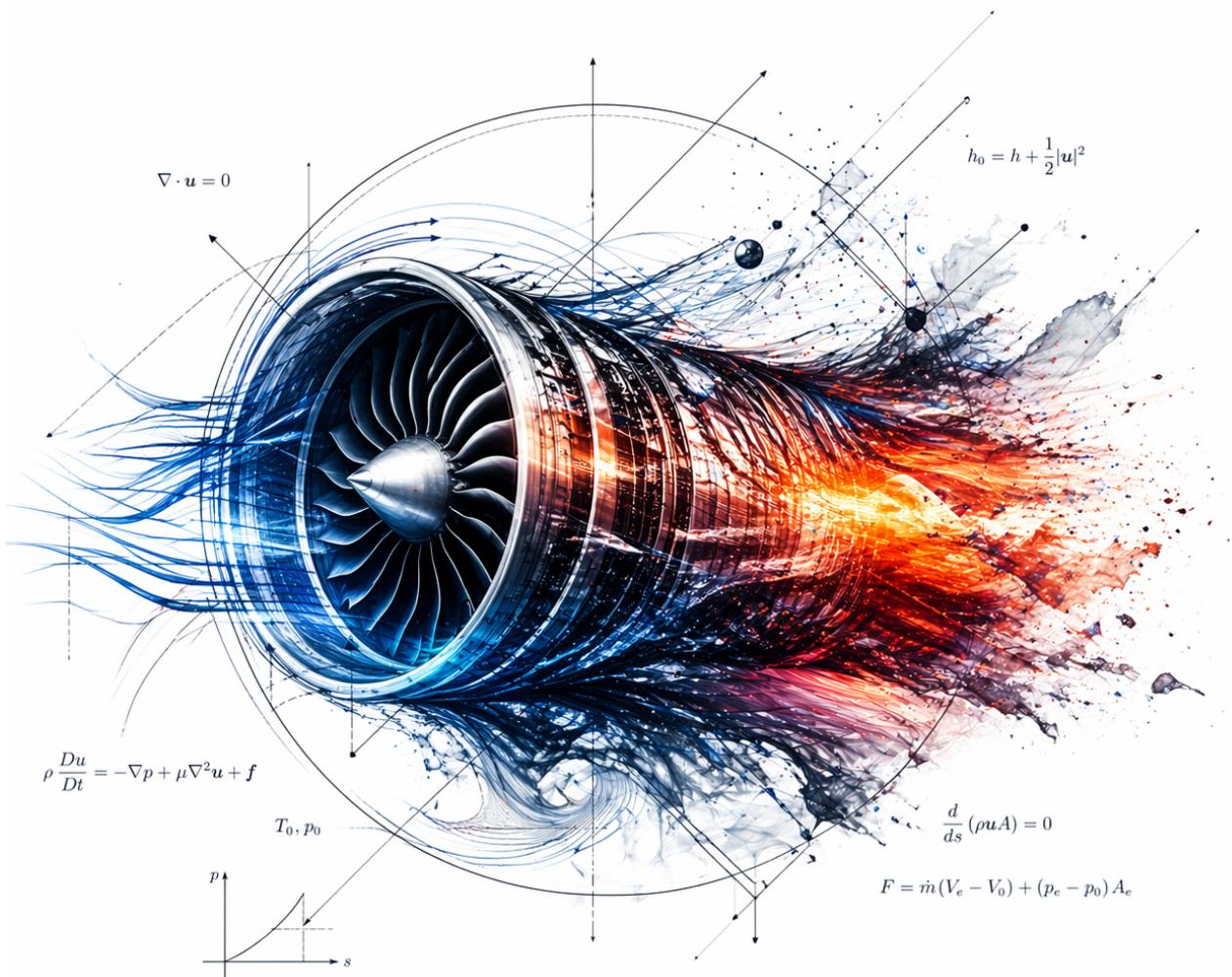


Fluid Mechanics ME-280

Based on Tobias Schneider's Lectures

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<https://github.com/Examera1005/Fluid-Mechanics-ME280>

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1 Viscosity and Shear Stress: Problem Solving

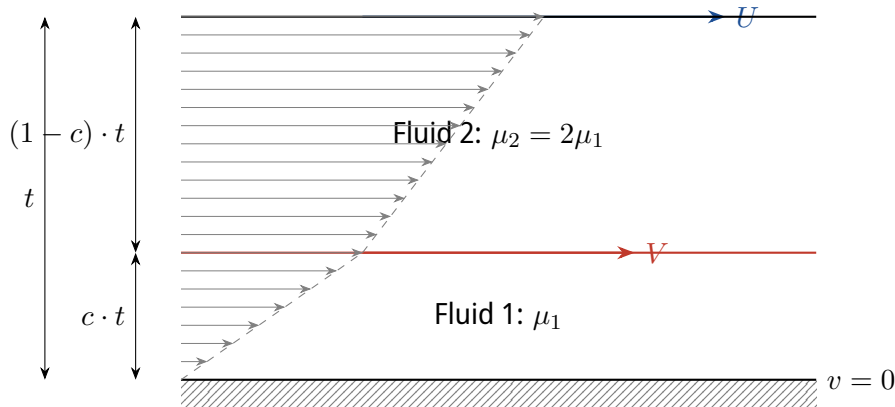
1.1 Problem 1: Plate moving between two fluids

1.1.1 Problem Statement

A thin flat plate is moving horizontally at a constant, unknown velocity V between two other parallel plates. The bottom plate is stationary, while the top plate moves at a constant velocity U . The space is filled with two different Newtonian fluids:

- **Fluid 1 (Bottom):** Dynamic viscosity μ_1 , filling a gap of height $c \cdot t$.
- **Fluid 2 (Top):** Dynamic viscosity $\mu_2 = 2\mu_1$, filling a gap of height $(1 - c) \cdot t$.

Goal: Determine the steady-state velocity vector $\vec{V}$ of the middle plate.



Scientific Verification: Linear Velocity Profile

The assumption that the velocity profile $u(y)$ is strictly linear between the plates is not arbitrary. It is mathematically derived from the **Navier-Stokes equations** (formulated by Navier in 1822 and Stokes in 1845). For a steady, fully developed, one-dimensional laminar flow with zero pressure gradient ($\frac{\partial p}{\partial x} = 0$), the equation simplifies to $\frac{d^2 u}{dy^2} = 0$, whose integration strictly yields a linear profile $u(y) = Ay + B$. This specific setup is historically known as **Couette Flow**, experimentally validated by **Maurice Couette in 1890**.

1.1.2 Governing Equations & Force Balance

Consider a small piece of the middle plate of area A . The plate experiences a shear stress from Fluid 1 on its bottom surface (τ_1) and a shear stress from Fluid 2 on its top surface (τ_2).

Since the plate moves at a *constant velocity* V , its acceleration is zero. According to Newton's First Law of

Motion (1687):

$$\Sigma F_x = m \cdot a_x = 0$$

$$F_{\text{shear, top}} - F_{\text{shear, bottom}} = 0$$

$$\tau_2 \cdot A - \tau_1 \cdot A = 0 \implies \tau_1 = \tau_2$$

(Note: Original handwritten notes contained a transcription error stating $\frac{\tau_2}{t} - \frac{\tau_1}{A} = 6$. This is mathematically and dimensionally incorrect. The derivation above represents the correct physical principle.)

Using Newton's Law of Viscosity ($\tau = \mu \frac{du}{dy}$), we determine the shear stresses. Because the velocity profiles are linear, the velocity gradients $\frac{du}{dy}$ are constant in each layer:

$$\tau_1 = \mu_1 \frac{\Delta u_1}{\Delta y_1} = \mu_1 \frac{V - 0}{c \cdot t} = \mu_1 \frac{V}{ct} \quad (1)$$

$$\tau_2 = \mu_2 \frac{\Delta u_2}{\Delta y_2} = \mu_2 \frac{U - V}{(1 - c) \cdot t} \quad (2)$$

1.1.3 Algebraic Resolution

Substitute $\mu_2 = 2\mu_1$ and equate the two shear stresses ($\tau_1 = \tau_2$):

$$\mu_1 \frac{V}{ct} = 2\mu_1 \frac{U - V}{(1 - c)t}$$

We can cancel out μ_1 and t from both sides:

$$\frac{V}{c} = \frac{2(U - V)}{1 - c}$$

Cross-multiply to solve for V :

$$V(1 - c) = 2c(U - V)$$

$$V - Vc = 2Uc - 2Vc$$

$$V - Vc + 2Vc = 2Uc$$

$$V(1 + c) = 2Uc$$

Final Analytical Solution

$$V = \frac{2Uc}{1 + c} \quad (3)$$

1.1.4 Verification of Physical Limits

To ensure our formula is robust, we must evaluate its behavior at the geometric boundaries ($c \rightarrow 0$ and $c \rightarrow 1$). (Note: The original notes contained calculation errors regarding these limits, stating $V = 3$ and $V = 0$. The scientifically verified limits are detailed below).

- **Limit 1:** $c \rightarrow 0$

If c approaches 0, the middle plate is effectively pressed against the bottom stationary wall.

$$\lim_{c \rightarrow 0} V = \frac{2U(0)}{1+0} = 0$$

This strictly satisfies the **No-Slip boundary condition** (Stokes, 1851): the velocity of the plate must match the velocity of the bottom wall (0).

- **Limit 2:** $c \rightarrow 1$

If c approaches 1, the middle plate is effectively pressed against the top wall which is moving at velocity U .

$$\lim_{c \rightarrow 1} V = \frac{2U(1)}{1+1} = \frac{2U}{2} = U$$

Again, this perfectly satisfies the No-Slip boundary condition relative to the top moving wall.

2 Fluid Statics and Pressure Fields

2.1 Review: Viscosity and Boundary Conditions

The shear stress (τ) in a Newtonian fluid is proportional to the velocity gradient.

Newton's Law of Viscosity

$$\tau = \mu \frac{du}{dy} = \mu \dot{\gamma} \quad (4)$$

Where μ is the dynamic viscosity and $\dot{\gamma}$ is the shear rate.

Wall Boundary Conditions

At the wall, two vector conditions are imposed:

- **Normal component (No-penetration):** $\vec{v} \cdot \vec{e}_y = v = 0$
- **Tangential component (No-slip):** $\vec{u} \cdot \vec{e}_x = u = 0$

If there is a slip velocity v_s over a thickness δ :

$$\tau = \mu \frac{v_s}{\delta}$$

Limit: If $\delta \rightarrow 0 \implies \tau \rightarrow \infty \iff v_s = 0$. (To avoid infinite stress, the slip velocity must be zero exactly at the wall).

Scientific Verification: No-Slip Condition

Although often perceived as modern "common sense," the strict no-slip condition ($u = 0$ at the wall) was widely debated in the 19th century (Navier believed a slip existed). It was **George Gabriel Stokes (1851)** in his study "*On the effect of the internal friction of fluids...*" who mathematically formalized and empirically validated this hypothesis for normal macroscopic fluids.

2.2 Fluid Statics

2.2.1 Pressure at a Point

Pressure P is defined as a force per unit area:

$$P = \frac{F}{A}$$

Fundamental hypothesis: We neglect shearing forces (erroneously written as *steering forces* in the notes). A fluid element in equilibrium or in motion without shear satisfies the force balance $\Sigma \vec{F} = m\vec{a}$.

The analysis of an infinitesimal prism (letting $dx, dy, dz \rightarrow 0$) demonstrates that pressure is the same in all directions.

$$P_x = P_y = P_z = P$$

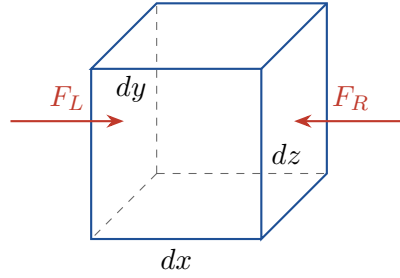
Pressure P is therefore a **scalar**.

Scientific Verification: Pascal's Principle

The demonstration that the pressure at a point is independent of the direction of observation was formally theorized by **Blaise Pascal in 1647** (*Expériences nouvelles touchant le vide*).

2.2.2 Pressure Field Equation

We isolate a cubic control volume of dimensions dx, dy, dz .



Using the Taylor series expansion for the pressure at the center of the volume:

$$P_R = P + \frac{dy}{2} \frac{\partial P}{\partial y} \Big|_0 + \dots$$

$$P_L = P - \frac{dy}{2} \frac{\partial P}{\partial y} \Big|_0 + \dots$$

The associated forces on the faces of area $dA = dx \cdot dz$ are:

$$F_R = P_R dx dz = \left(P + \frac{dy}{2} \frac{\partial P}{\partial y} \right) dx dz$$

$$F_L = P_L dx dz = \left(P - \frac{dy}{2} \frac{\partial P}{\partial y} \right) dx dz$$

Applying Newton's second law ($\Sigma F_y = ma_y$) and neglecting shear:

$$-F_R + F_L = (\rho dx dy dz) a_y$$

$$-dy \frac{\partial P}{\partial y} dx dz = \rho dV a_y$$

$$-\frac{\partial P}{\partial y} = \rho a_y$$

By symmetry in the x and z axes, and including the weight $\vec{W} = -\rho g dV \hat{k}$ per unit volume, we obtain the general pressure field equation (Euler's Equation):

Newton's Second Law per Unit Volume

$$-\nabla P - \rho g \hat{k} = \rho \vec{a} \quad (5)$$

With the pressure force field: $-\nabla P = -\frac{\partial P}{\partial x} \hat{i} - \frac{\partial P}{\partial y} \hat{j} - \frac{\partial P}{\partial z} \hat{k}$

Scientific Verification: Euler's Equation

Published by **Leonhard Euler in 1757** (*Principes généraux de l'état de l'équilibre des fluides*), this equation $-\nabla p + \rho \vec{g} = \rho \vec{a}$ forms the irrefutable basis of fluid mechanics for an inviscid continuous medium (or one with zero shear).

2.2.3 Fluid at Rest (Hydrostatics)

For a fluid at rest, the acceleration is zero ($\vec{a} = \vec{0}$). The equation becomes:

$$-\nabla P - \rho g \hat{k} = \vec{0} \iff \begin{cases} -\frac{\partial P}{\partial x} = 0 \\ -\frac{\partial P}{\partial y} = 0 \\ -\frac{\partial P}{\partial z} - \rho g = 0 \end{cases} \quad (6)$$

The first two equations show that P only depends on the altitude z , meaning $P = P(z)$. The fundamental differential equation of hydrostatics is therefore:

$$\frac{dP}{dz} = -\rho g \quad (7)$$

Integrating this equation between two points at elevations z_1 and z_2 :

$$\begin{aligned} \int_{P_1}^{P_2} dP &= \int_{z_1}^{z_2} -\rho g dz \\ \Delta P &= -\rho g \Delta z \end{aligned}$$

Which yields the famous relation:

$$P - P_0 = -\rho g h$$

Note: The pressure depends only on the depth h and **not** on the geometry of the container (a phenomenon formally described by **Simon Stevin in 1586** as the "Hydrostatic Paradox").

2.2.4 Absolute Pressure vs. Relative Pressure (Gage Pressure)

It is crucial to differentiate the reference level chosen to measure pressure:

- **Absolute Pressure:** Pressure measured relative to an absolute vacuum (0 atm). It is always positive.
- **Relative Pressure (Gage pressure):** Pressure measured relative to the local atmospheric pressure.

$$P_{\text{absolute}} = P_{\text{relative}} + P_{\text{atmospheric}}$$

2.3 Hydrostatics: Variable Density & Manometry

Recall the fundamental equation of fluid statics: $\frac{dP}{dz} = -\rho g$. For liquids, ρ is constant. For gases, it varies.

2.3.1 Ideal Gas Law & Isothermal Atmosphere

Using the Ideal Gas equation $P = \rho RT \implies \rho = \frac{P}{RT}$.

Scientific Verification: Ideal Gas Law

The formulation $P = \rho RT$ used in engineering was consolidated by **Émile Clapeyron in 1834**, combining Boyle's, Charles's, and Avogadro's empirical laws into a single rigorous equation of state.

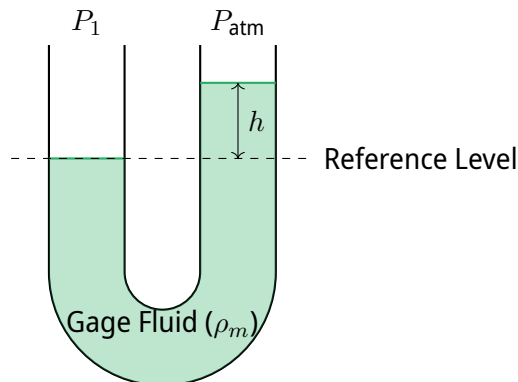
Substituting this into the hydrostatic equation for an **isothermal** condition ($T = \text{cst}$):

$$\int_{P_0}^P \frac{dP}{P} = \int_0^z -\frac{g}{RT} dz$$

$$\ln\left(\frac{P}{P_0}\right) = -\frac{g}{RT} z \implies P(z) = P_0 \exp\left(-\frac{gz}{RT}\right)$$

2.3.2 Manometry (Measuring Pressure)

A manometer uses liquid columns to measure pressure differences.



By stepping down and up the tube (pressure increases going down, decreases going up):

$$P_1 + \rho_{\text{fluid}} g z_1 - \rho_m g h = P_{\text{atm}}$$

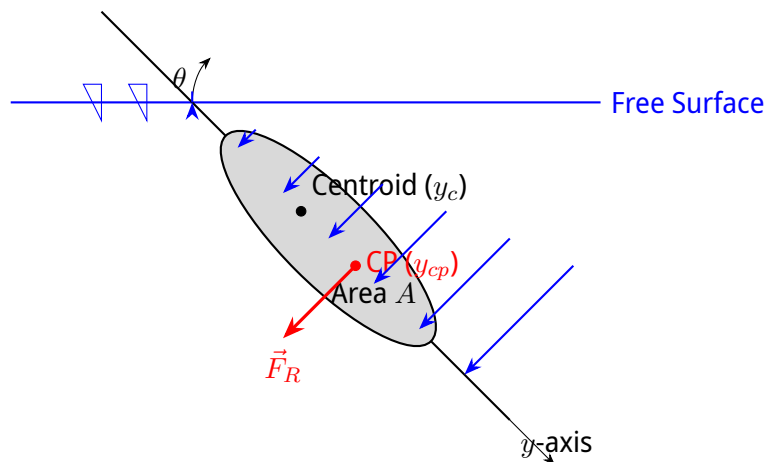
Scientific Verification: The Manometer

The concept of using fluid columns to measure differential pressure was invented by **Christiaan Huygens around 1661**. It directly relies on Stevin's and Pascal's principles that pressure in a continuous fluid only depends on depth.

2.4 Forces on Submerged Surfaces

2.4.1 Flat Surfaces & Center of Pressure

Consider a flat surface of area A inclined at an angle θ . The pressure increases linearly with depth, creating a **pressure prism**.



Resultant Force and Location

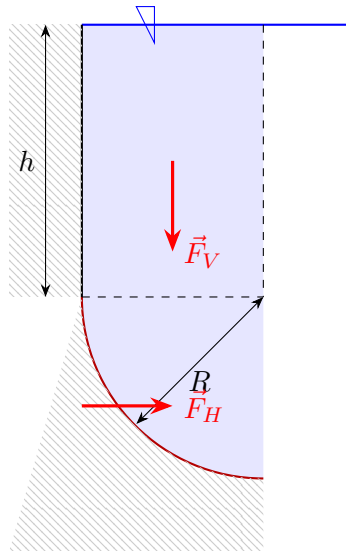
Magnitude: $F_R = P_c \cdot A = (\rho g h_c) A$

Location (Center of Pressure): $y_{cp} = y_c + \frac{I_{xc}}{y_c A}$

Where I_{xc} is the area moment of inertia. The **Parallel Axis Theorem** (Huygens, 1673) proves that $y_{cp} > y_c$, meaning the force always acts *below* the centroid due to the increasing pressure with depth.

2.4.2 Curved Submerged Surfaces: Tank Sidewall Example

For a curved surface, it is easier to calculate the horizontal and vertical components separately. Consider a tank with a curved quarter-circle sidewall of radius R and width w .



- **Vertical Component (F_V):** Equals the **weight** of the fluid volume directly above the curved surface.

$$F_V = \int_V \rho g dV = \rho g \left(\underbrace{h \cdot R \cdot w}_{\text{Rectangle}} + \underbrace{\frac{\pi R^2}{4} w}_{\text{Quarter Circle}} \right)$$

- **Horizontal Component (F_H):** Equals the force acting on the **vertical projection** of the curved surface (a rectangle of height R and width w).

$$F_H = \int_{A_v} P dA = \rho g h_{\text{centroid}} A_v = \rho g \left(h + \frac{R}{2} \right) (R \cdot w)$$

Scientific Verification: Archimedes' Principle

The fundamental logic that the vertical force F_V exerted by a fluid on a surface is equal to the weight of the fluid volume above it is rooted in the principles laid out by **Archimedes of Syracuse (c. 250 BC)** in his treatise *On Floating Bodies*.

3 Fluid Dynamics & Streamline Analysis

3.1 The Bernoulli Equation

Applying Newton's Second Law ($\Sigma \vec{F} = m\vec{a}$) along a streamline (s-direction):

$$-\frac{\partial P}{\partial s} - \rho g \frac{\partial z}{\partial s} = \rho v \frac{\partial v}{\partial s}$$

Integrating along the streamline with constant ρ gives the **Bernoulli Equation (1738)**:

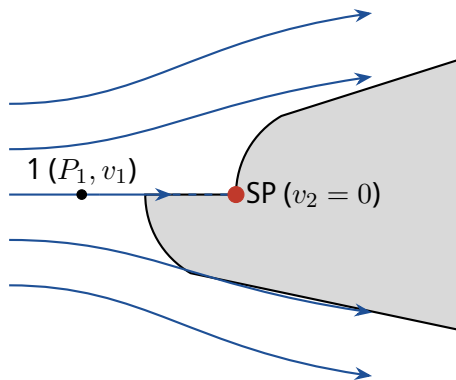
Bernoulli's Equation

$$P + \frac{1}{2}\rho v^2 + \rho g z = \text{Constant} \quad (8)$$

Strict Assumptions: 1) Steady flow, 2) Incompressible fluid ($\rho = \text{cst}$), 3) Inviscid flow (no friction/shear), 4) Along a single streamline.

3.1.1 Stagnation Point

When fluid hits a blunt object, the streamline dividing the flow stops completely at the **Stagnation Point (SP)** where $v = 0$.



Using Bernoulli from point 1 to the Stagnation Point (point 2):

$$P_1 + \frac{1}{2}\rho v_1^2 = P_2 + 0 \implies P_2 = P_1 + \frac{1}{2}\rho v_1^2 = P_{\text{stagnation}}$$

3.1.2 Flow Across Streamlines

In the normal direction (n) towards the center of curvature R_n :

$$-\frac{\partial P}{\partial n} - \rho g \frac{\partial z}{\partial n} = \rho \frac{v^2}{R_n}$$

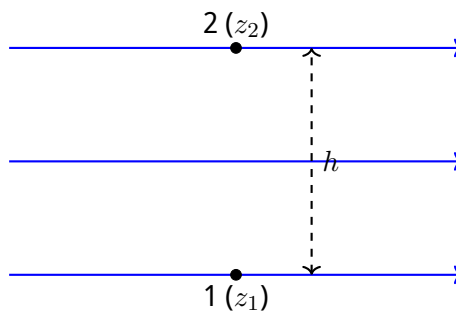
Integrating this equation across the streamlines (along dn), we obtain the exact result:

$$P + \rho gz + \rho \int \frac{v^2}{R_n} dn = \text{Constant}$$

This mathematically shows that the pressure increases as one moves radially away from the center of curvature.

3.2 Rectilinear Streamlines

Consider rectilinear (or nearly rectilinear) streamlines. The radius of curvature $R \rightarrow \infty$.



For the pressure difference between points 1 and 2, we apply the hydrostatic principles (first comprehensively detailed by Blaise Pascal in 1648):

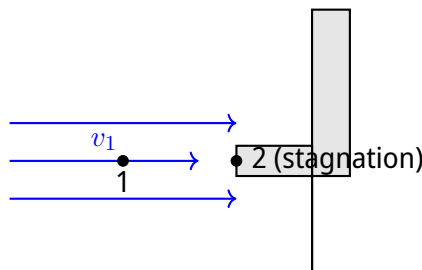
$$p_2 - p_1 = -\rho g(z_2 - z_1)$$

$p_1 = p_2 + \rho gh$

 (hydrostatic result)

3.3 Example: Pitot-Tube (Speed Sensor)

Task: Determine velocity v . The Pitot-tube was invented by French engineer Henri Pitot in 1732 to measure fluid flow velocity.



Along this streamline, the total pressure $p_t = \text{cte}$ (neglecting gravity). Applying Bernoulli's equation (published by Daniel Bernoulli in 1738) from point 1 to point 2:

$$p_1 + \frac{1}{2}\rho v_1^2 = p_2 + \frac{1}{2}\rho v_2^2$$

Since point 2 is a stagnation point, $v_2 = 0$:

$$p_1 + \frac{1}{2}\rho v_1^2 = p_2 + 0$$

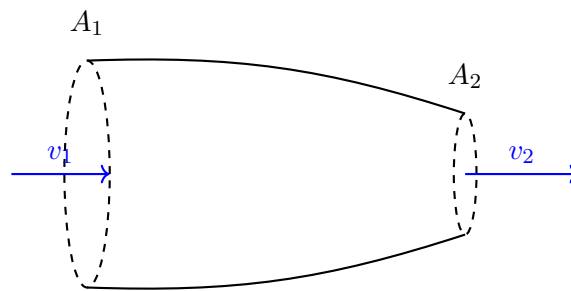
$$p_2 - p_1 = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_1^2$$

Solving for the velocity v_1 :

$$v_1 = \sqrt{\frac{2(p_2 - p_1)}{\rho}}$$

3.4 Mass Conservation & Stream Tubes

Useful concept: Mass Conservation in a stream tube. The continuity equation for steady incompressible flow was first mathematically formulated by Benedetto Castelli in 1628.



- Mass flow rate: $\dot{m} \quad \left[\frac{\text{kg}}{\text{s}} \right]$
- Volume flow rate: $\dot{V} \quad \left[\frac{\text{m}^3}{\text{s}} \right]$

$$\dot{V} = vA \quad (\text{velocity} \times \text{area})$$

Conservation of mass principle:

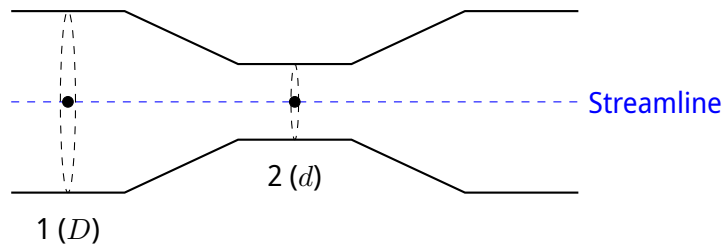
$$\rho_1 v_1 A_1 = \rho_2 v_2 A_2$$

Assuming steady and incompressible flow ($\rho_1 = \rho_2$):

$$v_1 A_1 = v_2 A_2$$

3.5 Example: Venturi Meter

Invented by Italian physicist Giovanni Battista Venturi in 1797, this device measures flow rate by reducing the cross-sectional area of flow.



Q: Flow rate?

Apply Bernoulli's equation between points 1 and 2:

$$\frac{1}{2}\rho v_1^2 + p_1 + \rho g z_1 = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_2^2 + p_2 + \rho g z_2$$

Assuming horizontal flow ($z_1 = z_2$), the elevation terms cancel out:

$$v_1^2 + \frac{2(p_1 - p_2)}{\rho} = v_2^2$$

This leaves us with 2 unknowns (v_1 and v_2). We use Volume Conservation to find the second relationship:

$$v_1 A_1 = v_2 A_2 \implies v_1 D^2 = v_2 d^2 \implies v_2 = v_1 \left(\frac{D}{d} \right)^2$$

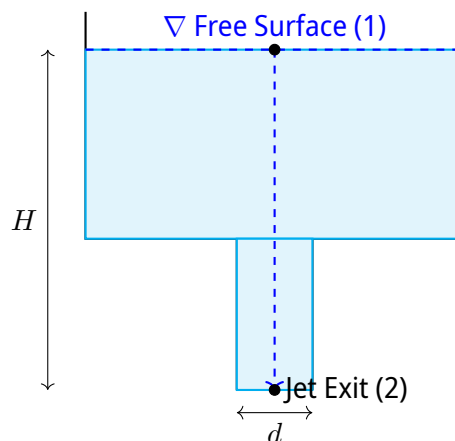
Substitute v_2 back into the simplified Bernoulli equation to solve for v_1 :

$$v_1 = \sqrt{\frac{2(p_1 - p_2)}{\rho \left[\left(\frac{D}{d} \right)^4 - 1 \right]}}$$

3.6 Example: Free Jet

This scenario demonstrates Torricelli's Law, discovered experimentally by Evangelista Torricelli in 1643.

We consider a bath (tank) with a tube/outlet at the bottom where water flows vertically downward.



Assumptions:

- No shear forces
- $\rho = \text{const}$ (in incompressible)
- Steady or quasi-steady flow evaluated along a streamline

Applying Bernoulli's equation from the free surface (1) to the exiting jet (2):

$$\frac{1}{2}\rho v_1^2 + \rho g z_1 + p_1 = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_2^2 + \rho g z_2 + p_2$$

We define the conditions:

- $v_1 \approx 0$ (large tank assumption)
- $z_1 - z_2 = H$ (total height difference to the tube exit)
- $p_1 = p_2 = p_{\text{atm}}$

Simplifying the equation gives Torricelli's result:

$$\rho g H = \frac{1}{2}\rho v_2^2$$

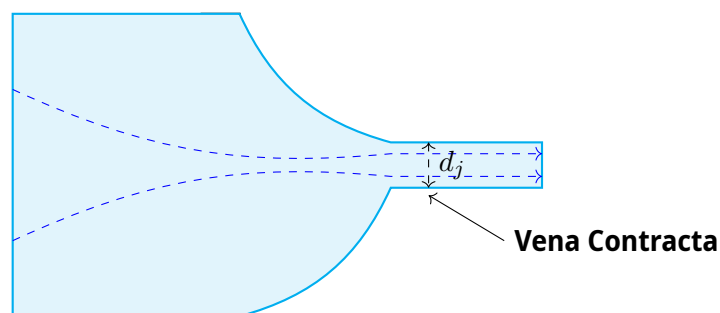
$$v_2 = \sqrt{2gH}$$

The flow rate out of the tube is determined by the velocity and the area of the jet:

$$\dot{V} = v_2 A_2 = \sqrt{2gH} \left(\frac{\pi}{4} d^2 \right)$$

3.7 Vena Contracta

Independent of the bottom-tube free jet, the *vena contracta* effect occurs when fluid flows through a sharp-edged orifice (a phenomenon first properly identified and measured by Isaac Newton in the second edition of his Principia in 1713). The streamlines cannot abruptly change direction, causing the exiting jet to contract to a diameter smaller than the physical hole.



Because the streamlines converge as they exit the hole, the actual jet area (A_j) is smaller than the hole area (A_h). The contraction coefficient C_c is defined as:

$$C_c = \frac{A_j}{A_h} = \left(\frac{d_j}{d_h} \right)^2$$

4 Fluid Kinematics

4.1 Visualizing Flow Patterns

Fluid kinematics describes motion without yet invoking conservation laws. The three main geometric ways to represent a flow are streamlines, pathlines, and streaklines.

1. **Streamlines:** Curves tangent to the instantaneous velocity field at a given time.

$$\frac{dy}{dx} = \frac{v}{u}, \quad \frac{dz}{dx} = \frac{w}{u}, \quad \frac{dz}{dy} = \frac{w}{v} \implies \frac{d\vec{r}_{SL}}{ds} \times \vec{V} = \vec{0} \quad (9)$$

2. **Pathlines:** The actual trajectory followed by one specific fluid particle through time.

$$\frac{d\vec{r}_p}{dt} = \vec{V}(\vec{r}_p(t), t) \implies \frac{dx}{dt} = u, \quad \frac{dy}{dt} = v, \quad \frac{dz}{dt} = w \quad (10)$$

3. **Streaklines:** The locus of all particles that have passed through a given point $\vec{r}_0$ at previous times $\tau < t$.

Key Result: In steady flow, where $\partial\vec{V}/\partial t = 0$, streamlines, pathlines, and streaklines coincide.

4.1.1 Example: The Sprinkler (Unsteady Case)

Consider the unsteady velocity field

$$\vec{V} = U_0 \sin\left[\omega\left(t - \frac{y}{v_0}\right)\right] \hat{i} + v_0 \hat{j} \quad (11)$$

- **Streamlines at $t = 0$:**

$$x(y) = \frac{U_0}{\omega} \left(\cos\left(\frac{\omega y}{v_0}\right) - 1 \right) \quad (12)$$

so the streamline shape is sinusoidal.

- **Pathline for a particle starting at the origin at $t = 0$:**

$$x(t) = 0, \quad y(t) = v_0 t \quad (13)$$

which is a straight vertical line.

This example shows that in unsteady flow, streamlines and pathlines are generally different objects.

4.2 Acceleration Field

The acceleration of a fluid particle is the total derivative of the velocity field:

$$\vec{a} = \frac{D\vec{V}}{Dt} = \underbrace{\frac{\partial\vec{V}}{\partial t}}_{\text{Local acceleration}} + \underbrace{(\vec{V} \cdot \vec{\nabla})\vec{V}}_{\text{Convective acceleration}} \quad (14)$$

Technical Analysis: The Material Derivative

The operator $\frac{D}{Dt}$ is fundamental in fluid mechanics because it gives the rate of change experienced by a moving fluid particle. The convective term $(\vec{V} \cdot \vec{\nabla})\vec{V}$ is non-linear and is a major source of complex flow behavior, including mechanisms that contribute to turbulence. It measures the change in velocity caused by a particle moving into a region where the flow field is different, even when the flow is steady in time.

4.2.1 Example: The Diffuser

For a steady one-dimensional flow

$$u(x) = v_0 \left(1 - \frac{x}{L}\right) \quad (15)$$

the local acceleration term vanishes because the flow is steady, so only the convective contribution remains:

$$a_x = u \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = v_0 \left(1 - \frac{x}{L}\right) \left(-\frac{v_0}{L}\right) = -\frac{v_0^2}{L} \left(1 - \frac{x}{L}\right) \quad (16)$$

The negative sign indicates deceleration, which is consistent with the widening geometry of a diffuser.

4.3 Velocity Fields: Eulerian vs. Lagrangian Descriptions

Once the motion has been visualized geometrically, it is useful to introduce the two standard ways of describing it mathematically.

Eulerian Description: Focuses on fixed points in space and describes the velocity as a field:

$$\vec{V}(\vec{r}, t) = u\hat{i} + v\hat{j} + w\hat{k} \quad (17)$$

Lagrangian Description: Follows individual fluid particles and describes their motion from an initial position:

$$\vec{V}(\vec{r}_0, t) \quad \text{where } \vec{r}_0 \text{ is the particle's initial position} \quad (18)$$

Structural Foundation: Eulerian vs. Lagrangian Comparison

Eulerian formulations (Leonhard Euler, 1757) are the standard framework for most continuum fluid mechanics and Computational Fluid Dynamics (CFD), because they describe the flow as fields defined everywhere in space. Lagrangian formulations (Joseph-Louis Lagrange, 1788) are indispensable when one must follow individual particles, droplets, interfaces, or solid bodies.

Feature	Eulerian (Field)	Lagrangian (Particle)
Independent Variables	Position $\vec{r}$, Time t	Initial Position $\vec{r}_0$, Time t
Mass Tracking	Flux through a fixed volume	Constant identity of mass
Differentiation	Requires the Material Derivative	Standard time derivative

5 Diffusion and Partial Differential Equations

5.1 Non-Homogeneous Boundary Conditions (BC)

Concept: The idea is to decompose the full solution into a steady-state part that satisfies the non-homogeneous boundary conditions and a transient part that satisfies homogeneous boundary conditions. As $t \rightarrow \infty$, the transient contribution decays and the solution converges to the steady-state profile.

The governing one-dimensional diffusion (or heat) equation is:

$$\frac{\partial C}{\partial t} = D \frac{\partial^2 C}{\partial x^2} \quad (19)$$

Boundary Conditions (BC):

- $C(0, t) = C_1$
- $C(L, t) = C_2$

Initial Condition (IC):

- $C(x, 0) = C_0(x)$

5.1.1 Step A: Solve for the Steady State

Define the steady-state solution by

$$C_f(x) = \lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} C(x, t) \quad (20)$$

At steady state, the time derivative vanishes:

$$\frac{\partial C_f}{\partial t} = 0 \quad \implies \quad 0 = D \frac{\partial^2 C_f}{\partial x^2} \quad (21)$$

Hence,

$$C_f(x) = C_1 + \frac{C_2 - C_1}{L}x \quad (22)$$

Critical Analysis: Limits of the Steady-State Approximation

Mathematical rigor vs. physical reality: The formal definition $C_f(x) = \lim_{t \rightarrow \infty} C(x, t)$ refers to an infinite-time limit. In practice, a system is considered close to steady state when the Fourier number $Fo = \frac{Dt}{L^2}$ becomes sufficiently large, typically $Fo > 0.2$ as a rough engineering estimate. In addition, the linear profile above assumes that the diffusivity D is constant. If D depends on concentration, temperature, or composition, then the PDE becomes non-linear and the steady-state profile is no longer necessarily linear.

5.1.2 Step B: Define the Transient Component

Introduce the deviation from steady state:

$$\tilde{C}(x, t) := C(x, t) - C_f(x) \quad (23)$$

Then $\tilde{C}$ satisfies the homogeneous PDE

$$\frac{\partial \tilde{C}}{\partial t} = D \frac{\partial^2 \tilde{C}}{\partial x^2} \quad (24)$$

The transformed homogeneous boundary conditions are:

- $\tilde{C}(0, t) = C(0, t) - C_f(0) = C_1 - C_1 = 0$
- $\tilde{C}(L, t) = C(L, t) - C_f(L) = C_2 - C_2 = 0$

The transformed initial condition is:

- $\tilde{C}(x, 0) = C_0(x) - C_f(x)$

5.1.3 Step C: Superposition

The full solution is reconstructed as

$$C(x, t) = C_f(x) + \tilde{C}(x, t) \quad (25)$$

5.2 Time-Dependent Diffusion (1D Series Expansion)

The governing PDE for one-dimensional time-dependent diffusion is:

Definition: The Diffusion Equation

$$\frac{\partial C}{\partial t} = D \frac{\partial^2 C}{\partial x^2} \quad (26)$$

Boundary Conditions (BC): Fixed concentration

Assume zero concentration at both boundaries:

$$C(0, t) = C(L, t) = 0 \quad (27)$$

Superposition Principle

The PDE is linear and homogeneous, and the boundary conditions are also homogeneous. Therefore, if $C_1(x, t)$ and $C_2(x, t)$ are solutions, then

$$C_1(x, t) + C_2(x, t) \quad \text{and} \quad \beta C_1(x, t), \quad \beta \in \mathbb{R}$$

are also solutions.

Why is this true? (Superposition Principle)

$$\begin{aligned}\text{PDE: } \frac{\partial}{\partial t}(C_1 + C_2) - D \frac{\partial^2}{\partial x^2}(C_1 + C_2) &= \left(\frac{\partial C_1}{\partial t} - D \frac{\partial^2 C_1}{\partial x^2} \right) + \left(\frac{\partial C_2}{\partial t} - D \frac{\partial^2 C_2}{\partial x^2} \right) \\ &= 0 + 0 = 0\end{aligned}$$

and the boundary conditions are preserved because

$$\begin{aligned}(C_1 + C_2)(0, t) &= C_1(0, t) + C_2(0, t) = 0 + 0 = 0 \\ (C_1 + C_2)(L, t) &= C_1(L, t) + C_2(L, t) = 0 + 0 = 0\end{aligned}$$

5.2.1 Solution Approach (Linearity)

Step 1: General solution representation

Because of linearity, the solution can be written as a superposition of basis functions:

$$C(x, t) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n \varphi_n(x, t) \quad (28)$$

where the coefficients A_n are determined by the initial condition.

Step 2: Separation of variables

Assume

$$C(x, t) = X(x)T(t) \quad (29)$$

Substituting into the PDE gives

$$X(x) \frac{dT(t)}{dt} = D T(t) \frac{d^2 X(x)}{dx^2}$$

Dividing by $D X(x)T(t)$ yields

$$\underbrace{\frac{1}{D} \frac{T'(t)}{T(t)}}_{\text{depends only on } t} = \underbrace{\frac{X''(x)}{X(x)}}_{\text{depends only on } x} = -\lambda \quad (30)$$

Since the left-hand side depends only on t and the right-hand side only on x , both must be equal to a constant $-\lambda$.

This leads to two coupled ODEs:

$$T'(t) + D\lambda T(t) = 0 \quad (31)$$

$$X''(x) + \lambda X(x) = 0 \quad (32)$$

5.2.2 Solving the Spatial Problem

We now solve

$$X''(x) + \lambda X(x) = 0 \quad (33)$$

subject to

$$X(0) = X(L) = 0 \quad (34)$$

Definition: Evaluating the different cases for λ

Case I: $\lambda < 0$

The solution has the form

$$X(x) = \alpha_1 e^{\sqrt{-\lambda}x} + \alpha_2 e^{-\sqrt{-\lambda}x}$$

Applying the boundary conditions forces $\alpha_1 = \alpha_2 = 0$, giving only the trivial solution.

Case II: $\lambda = 0$

The solution becomes

$$X(x) = \alpha_1 x + \alpha_2$$

Applying the boundary conditions again yields only the trivial solution.

Case III: $\lambda > 0$

The solution is

$$X(x) = \alpha_1 \cos(\sqrt{\lambda}x) + \alpha_2 \sin(\sqrt{\lambda}x)$$

Applying the boundary conditions gives

$$X(0) = \alpha_1 = 0$$

$$X(L) = \alpha_2 \sin(\sqrt{\lambda}L) = 0$$

To avoid the trivial solution, we require

$$\sin(\sqrt{\lambda}L) = 0$$

which implies

$$\sqrt{\lambda}L = k\pi, \quad k \in \mathbb{Z}^+$$

Therefore, the eigenvalues are

$$\lambda_k = \left(\frac{k\pi}{L}\right)^2, \quad k \in \{1, 2, 3, \dots\} \quad (35)$$

and the corresponding eigenfunctions are

$$X_k(x) = \sin\left(\frac{k\pi}{L}x\right) \quad (36)$$

Note: The amplitude factor can be absorbed into the global coefficient A_k .

5.2.3 Solving the Temporal Problem

For a fixed eigenvalue

$$\lambda_n = \left(\frac{n\pi}{L}\right)^2 \quad (37)$$

the time equation becomes

$$T'_n(t) = -D\lambda_n T_n(t)$$

whose solution is

$$T_n(t) = \beta_n e^{-D(\frac{n\pi}{L})^2 t} \quad (38)$$

5.2.4 Combining the Spatial and Temporal Solutions

The basis solutions are therefore

$$\varphi_n(x, t) = e^{-D(\frac{n\pi}{L})^2 t} \sin\left(\frac{n\pi}{L}x\right) \quad (39)$$

and the general solution satisfying the homogeneous boundary conditions is

$$C(x, t) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n e^{-D(\frac{n\pi}{L})^2 t} \sin\left(\frac{n\pi}{L}x\right) \quad (40)$$

5.2.5 Step 3: Determine the coefficients $\{A_n\}$ from the initial condition

At $t = 0$,

$$C(x, 0) = C_0(x) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n \sin\left(\frac{n\pi}{L}x\right) \quad (41)$$

To determine the coefficients, multiply both sides by $\sin\left(\frac{m\pi}{L}x\right)$ and integrate from 0 to L :

$$\int_0^L C_0(x) \sin\left(\frac{m\pi}{L}x\right) dx = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} A_n \int_0^L \sin\left(\frac{n\pi}{L}x\right) \sin\left(\frac{m\pi}{L}x\right) dx$$

Orthogonality Property

$$\int_0^L \sin\left(\frac{n\pi}{L}x\right) \sin\left(\frac{m\pi}{L}x\right) dx = \begin{cases} 0 & \text{if } n \neq m \\ \frac{L}{2} & \text{if } n = m \end{cases}$$

Trigonometric identity used:

$$\sin(a) \sin(b) = \frac{1}{2} [\cos(a - b) - \cos(a + b)]$$

By orthogonality, only the term $n = m$ remains:

$$\int_0^L C_0(x) \sin\left(\frac{n\pi}{L}x\right) dx = A_n \frac{L}{2}$$

Hence,

$$A_n = \frac{2}{L} \int_0^L C_0(x) \sin\left(\frac{n\pi}{L}x\right) dx \quad (42)$$

Result: Final Full Solution

For any initial condition $C_0(x)$ that admits a Fourier sine expansion, the complete solution is

$$C(x, t) = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} \left[\frac{2}{L} \int_0^L C_0(\tilde{x}) \sin\left(\frac{n\pi}{L} \tilde{x}\right) d\tilde{x} \right] e^{-D\left(\frac{n\pi}{L}\right)^2 t} \sin\left(\frac{n\pi}{L} x\right) \quad (43)$$

6 System, Control Volume, and Reynolds Transport Theorem

This section closes the chapter sequence by linking the Lagrangian and Eulerian viewpoints and showing how conservation laws are written for control volumes.

6.1 System vs. Control Volume

- **System:** A fixed amount of mass. Its boundary may move and deform with the material. This is the natural **Lagrangian** viewpoint.
- **Control Volume (CV):** A region in space through which mass may enter or leave. This is the natural **Eulerian** viewpoint.

The purpose of the Reynolds Transport Theorem is to connect these two descriptions.

6.2 Reynolds Transport Theorem (RTT)

Formal derivation: Munson 4.4.1

Consider a system at time $t = t_0$ such that the control volume and the system coincide:

$$CV \text{ at } t = t_0 = SYS \quad (44)$$

Let

- B be an extensive quantity
- b be the corresponding intensive quantity defined by

$$b = \frac{B}{m} \quad (45)$$

The amount of B inside the control volume and inside the system can be written as

$$B_{CV} = \int_{CV} \rho b \, dV, \quad B_{SYS} = \int_{SYS} \rho b \, dV \quad (46)$$

The rate of change of B for the system is related to the control-volume description by

$$\frac{DB_{SYS}}{Dt} = \frac{\partial B_{CV}}{\partial t} + \dot{B}_{out} - \dot{B}_{in} \quad (47)$$

The flux terms are

- Flux of B into the control volume:

$$\dot{B}_{in} = b_{in} \dot{m}_{in} = b_{in} \rho_{in} A_{in} V_{in} \quad (48)$$

- Flux of B out of the control volume:

$$\dot{B}_{out} = b_{out} \dot{m}_{out} = b_{out} \rho_{out} A_{out} V_{out} \quad (49)$$

Simple Version of RTT

$$\left(\frac{DB}{Dt} \right)_{SYS} = \left(\frac{\partial B}{\partial t} \right)_{CV} + (b\rho V A)_{out} - (b\rho V A)_{in}$$

General Form of RTT

For a general surface, the mass flow rate through an area element is

$$\dot{m} = \int_A \rho \vec{V} \cdot \hat{n} dA \quad (50)$$

Therefore, the net rate at which the property B crosses the control surface is

$$\dot{B} = \int_{CS} b\rho V_n dA = \dot{B}_{out} - \dot{B}_{in} \quad (51)$$

where

- $\hat{n}$ is the outward unit normal vector
- dA is an area element on the control surface
- dV is a volume element in the control volume
- $V_n = \vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}$ is the normal component of velocity

Since $CV = SYS$ at the instant $t = t_0$, the general form of the Reynolds Transport Theorem is

Reynolds Transport Theorem (General Form)

$$\underbrace{\left(\frac{DB}{Dt} \right)_{SYS}}_{\text{Lagrangian system}} = \underbrace{\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{CV} b\rho dV}_{\text{Eulerian volume contribution}} + \underbrace{\int_{CS} b\rho(\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}) dA}_{\text{Eulerian surface contribution}}$$

Notes:

- For **steady flow**,

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{CV} b\rho dV = 0 \quad (52)$$

so that

$$\frac{DB_{SYS}}{Dt} = \int_{CS} b\rho(\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}) dA \quad (53)$$

- For a **moving, non-deforming control volume**, one uses the relative velocity

$$\vec{W} = \vec{V} - \vec{V}_{CV} \quad (54)$$

- In practical calculations, the closed-surface integral is often split into separate inlet and outlet contributions.

6.3 Control Volume Approach to Conservation Laws

Using RTT, the main Lagrangian conservation laws can be rewritten in Eulerian control-volume form:

1. Mass conservation
2. Newton's second law
3. Energy conservation (First Law of Thermodynamics)

6.4 Mass Conservation

For mass conservation, the extensive quantity is the mass itself:

$$B = M \quad (55)$$

Hence the associated intensive quantity is

$$b = 1 \quad (56)$$

Substituting into the general RTT gives

$$\left(\frac{DM}{Dt} \right)_{SYS} = \frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{CV} \rho dV + \int_{CS} \rho (\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}) dA \quad (57)$$

In words:

Rate of change of the mass of the coincident system = rate of change of mass inside the control volume + net mass flow rate through the control surface.

For a closed system, mass is conserved, so

$$\left(\frac{DM}{Dt} \right)_{SYS} = 0 \quad (58)$$

This gives the integral continuity equation:

Continuity Equation

$$0 = \frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{CV} \rho dV + \int_{CS} \rho (\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}) dA$$

6.4.1 Example: Nozzle (Stationary Flow)

Consider a nozzle with:

- **Inlet (Area A_0):** uniform velocity profile V_0 , radius R_0
- **Outlet (Area A_1):** parabolic velocity profile

$$V(r) = V_m \left(1 - \frac{r^2}{R_1^2}\right) \quad (59)$$

with outlet radius R_1

Assumptions:

- Steady flow
- Constant density, $\rho = \text{const}$

Apply the continuity equation:

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{CV} \rho dV + \int_{CS} \rho (\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}) dA = 0 \quad (60)$$

Because the flow is steady, the accumulation term vanishes:

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{CV} \rho dV = 0 \quad (61)$$

Therefore,

$$\int_{CS} \rho (\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}) dA = 0 \quad (62)$$

and since ρ is constant,

$$\int_{CS} (\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}) dA = 0 \quad (63)$$

Split the control-surface integral into inlet and outlet contributions:

$$\int_{A_0} (\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}) dA + \int_{A_1} (\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}) dA = 0 \quad (64)$$

Inlet contribution:

At the inlet, the outward normal points opposite to the incoming flow, so

$$\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n} = -V_0 \quad (65)$$

Hence,

$$\int_{A_0} (\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}) dA = -V_0 \int_{A_0} dA = -V_0 \pi R_0^2 \quad (66)$$

Outlet contribution:

Using polar coordinates, the area element is

$$dA = 2\pi r \, dr \quad (67)$$

Thus,

$$\begin{aligned} \int_{A_1} (\vec{V} \cdot \hat{n}) \, dA &= \int_0^{R_1} V_m \left(1 - \frac{r^2}{R_1^2} \right) (2\pi r) \, dr \\ &= 2\pi V_m \left[\frac{r^2}{2} - \frac{r^4}{4R_1^2} \right]_0^{R_1} \\ &= 2\pi V_m \left(\frac{R_1^2}{2} - \frac{R_1^2}{4} \right) \\ &= \frac{\pi}{2} V_m R_1^2 \end{aligned}$$

Combine both contributions:

$$0 = -V_0 \pi R_0^2 + \frac{\pi}{2} V_m R_1^2 \quad (68)$$

Solving for the maximum outlet velocity gives

Key Result

$$V_m = 2V_0 \left(\frac{R_0}{R_1} \right)^2$$

7 RTT and Newton's 2nd Law

We begin by applying the Reynolds Transport Theorem (RTT) to the conservation of linear momentum. Let the extensive property be the linear momentum of the system, $B = m\vec{v}$, and the intensive property be the velocity, $\beta = \vec{v}$.

Newton's second law for a system (a fixed mass) states that the rate of change of linear momentum equals the sum of external forces:

$$\left(\frac{DB}{Dt}\right)_{\text{sys}} = \sum \vec{F}_{\text{sys}} \quad (69)$$

Applying the RTT for a control volume (CV) with a control surface (CS):

$$\underbrace{\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{\text{CV}} \rho \vec{v} dV}_{\text{Rate of change of linear momentum in CV}} + \underbrace{\int_{\text{CS}} \rho \vec{v} (\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n}) dA}_{\text{Flux of linear momentum through CS}} = \sum \vec{F}_{\text{CV}} \quad (70)$$

This is the fundamental integral form of the momentum equation.

7.1 Simplifications for Practical Problems

Assuming a fixed, non-deforming Control Volume in an inertial reference frame, we can simplify the flux integral if the control surface consists of N discrete flat areas (inlets/outlets):

$$\int_{\text{CS}} (\dots) dA = \int_{A_1} (\dots) dA + \int_{A_2} (\dots) dA + \dots + \int_{A_N} (\dots) dA, \quad N < \infty \quad (71)$$

If the velocity $\vec{v}$ is **uniform** over an area A and parallel to the normal $\hat{n}$:

$$\int_A \rho \vec{v} (\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n}) dA = \rho \vec{v} (\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n}) A = \rho \vec{v} V_n A = \dot{m} \vec{v} \quad (72)$$

where $\dot{m}$ is the mass flow rate.

Steady State & Continuity

If the flow is **steady**, the local derivative term vanishes:

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{\text{CV}} \rho \vec{v} dV = 0 \quad (73)$$

For a stream tube with one inlet (1) and one outlet (2), assuming steady uniform flow, the continuity equation requires:

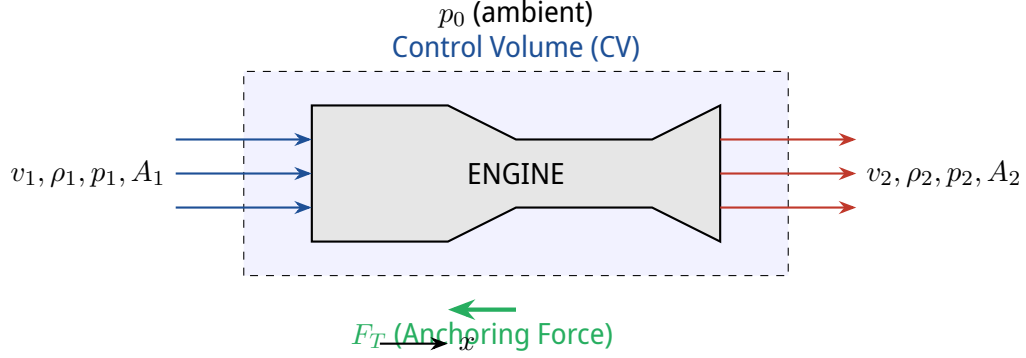
$$\dot{m}_1 = \dot{m}_2 = \dot{m} \implies \int_{\text{CS}} \rho (\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n}) dA = 0 \quad (74)$$

The momentum equation simplifies to:

$$\sum \vec{F} = \dot{m}_2 \vec{v}_2 - \dot{m}_1 \vec{v}_1 = \dot{m} (\vec{v}_2 - \vec{v}_1) \quad (75)$$

7.2 Example: Engine Thrust & Anchoring Force

Consider a jet engine. We wish to find the anchoring force F_T required to hold the engine stationary.



Assumptions: Steady flow, uniform velocity profiles. Note that velocities in the x-direction are defined as u_1 and u_2 .

Evaluating the momentum equation in the x-direction:

$$-\rho_1 u_1(u_1)A_1 + \rho_2 u_2(u_2)A_2 = \sum F_x \implies \dot{m}(u_2 - u_1) = \sum F_x \quad (76)$$

The net force $\sum F_x$ includes the pressure acting on the control surface boundaries and the anchoring force F_T . Pressure acts inwards on the CV:

$$\sum F_x = p_1 A_1 + F_T - p_2 A_2 - p_0(A_1 - A_2) \quad (77)$$

Solving for the anchoring force F_T :

$$F_T = \dot{m}(u_2 - u_1) - (p_1 - p_0)A_1 + (p_2 - p_0)A_2 \quad (78)$$

Expert Analysis: Momentum Flux in Non-Uniform and Deforming Systems

1. Deforming Control Volumes: If the boundaries of the control volume are moving with velocity $\vec{v}_{cs}$, the RTT must be modified to use the relative velocity $\vec{w} = \vec{v} - \vec{v}_{cs}$ for the flux term:

$$\left(\frac{DB}{Dt} \right)_{\text{sys}} = \frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{\text{CV}} \rho \beta dV + \int_{\text{CS}} \rho \beta (\vec{w} \cdot \hat{n}) dA \quad (79)$$

Crucially, $\frac{\partial}{\partial t}$ cannot be moved inside the integral unless the limits of integration (the CV shape) are time-invariant. Even if the internal flow field is "steady" in a relative sense, a deforming boundary implies local unsteadiness.

2. Boussinesq Momentum Correction Factor: The assumption that $\int_A \rho u^2 dA = \dot{m} \bar{u}$ is strictly true *only* for inviscid, plug flow. Real flows have boundary layers. To maintain rigor while using 1D average velocities, a momentum correction factor β_m is introduced:

$$\int_A \rho u^2 dA = \beta_m \dot{m} \bar{u} \quad \text{where} \quad \beta_m = \frac{1}{A} \int_A \left(\frac{u}{\bar{u}} \right)^2 dA \quad (80)$$

For fully developed laminar pipe flow, $\beta_m = 1.33$. For high-Reynolds turbulent flow, $\beta_m \approx 1.01$ to 1.05. Therefore, the uniform flow assumption ($\beta_m = 1$) is an acceptable approximation for turbulent flows but introduces significant error in laminar regimes.

8 RTT for the 1st Law of Thermodynamics

8.1 General Situation

Let the extensive property be total energy, $B = E$. The corresponding intensive property (specific energy) is $\beta = e = E/m$.

$$e = \tilde{u} + \frac{1}{2}v^2 + gz \quad (81)$$

where $\tilde{u}$ is specific internal energy, $\frac{1}{2}v^2$ is specific kinetic energy, and gz is specific potential energy (assuming gravity acts in the $-z$ direction, $\vec{g} = -g\hat{k}$).

The 1st Law of Thermodynamics states:

$$\frac{DE_{\text{sys}}}{Dt} = \dot{Q}_{\text{net, in}} + \dot{W}_{\text{net, in}} \quad (82)$$

Where $\dot{Q}_{\text{net, in}}$ is the net heat transfer rate *into* the system, and $\dot{W}_{\text{net, in}}$ is the net power (work rate) done *on* the system.

Applying RTT:

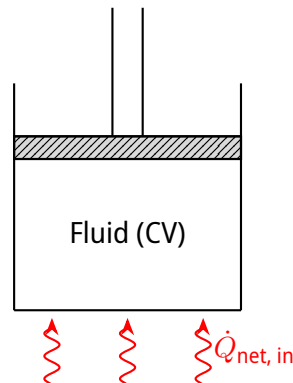
$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{\text{CV}} e \rho dV + \int_{\text{CS}} e \rho (\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n}) dA = \dot{Q}_{\text{net, in}} + \dot{W}_{\text{net, in}} \quad (83)$$

8.2 Types of Power ($\dot{W}$)

Work requires a force acting over a displacement. Power is force times velocity. We typically divide power into two categories for fluids:

1. **Shaft Power ($\dot{W}_{\text{shaft}}$):** Power transmitted across the control surface by rotating shafts (e.g., pumps adding energy, turbines extracting energy). $\dot{W}_{\text{shaft}} = \tau_{\text{shaft}} \cdot \omega$.
2. **Flow Work / Normal Stress Work ($\dot{W}_{\text{normal}}$):** The work done by pressure forces at the control surfaces to push the fluid into/out of the control volume.

$$\dot{W}_{\text{normal}} = - \int_{\text{CS}} p(\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n}) dA \quad (84)$$



Substituting $\dot{W}_{\text{net}} = \dot{W}_{\text{shaft}} - \int_{\text{CS}} p(\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n}) dA$ into the RTT formulation and grouping the area integrals:

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{\text{CV}} e \rho dV + \int_{\text{CS}} \underbrace{\left(\tilde{u} + \frac{1}{2} v^2 + gz + \frac{p}{\rho} \right)}_{h=\text{enthalpy}+\text{mechanical energy}} \rho(\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n}) dA = \dot{Q}_{\text{net, in}} + \dot{W}_{\text{shaft, in}} \quad (85)$$

This is the general Energy Equation for a control volume.

Expert Analysis: Derivation of Flow Work from the Cauchy Stress Tensor

The standard derivation groups pressure p into the energy equation, but mathematically, this originates from the surface traction vector $\vec{t} = \sigma \cdot \hat{n}$. The total Cauchy stress tensor is $\sigma = -p\mathbf{I} + \tau$ (where τ is the viscous shear stress tensor).

The mechanical power done by the fluid surroundings on the control surface is:

$$\dot{W}_{\text{surface}} = \int_{\text{CS}} (\vec{t} \cdot \vec{v}) dA = \int_{\text{CS}} ((-p\mathbf{I} + \tau) \cdot \hat{n}) \cdot \vec{v} dA = \int_{\text{CS}} -p(\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n}) dA + \int_{\text{CS}} (\tau \cdot \hat{n}) \cdot \vec{v} dA \quad (86)$$

In most pipe flows, the control surfaces are perpendicular to the velocity ($\vec{v} \parallel \hat{n}$). Because fluid adheres to stationary pipe walls (no-slip condition, $\vec{v} = 0$), viscous work at solid boundaries is identically zero. Viscous work at the inlets/outlets is typically negligible because velocity gradients in the flow direction ($\partial u / \partial x$) are incredibly small compared to radial gradients. Thus, $\int_{\text{CS}} (\tau \cdot \hat{n}) \cdot \vec{v} dA \approx 0$, leaving only the $-p(\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n})$ term.

8.3 Simplified Steady Flow Energy Equation

Assuming steady flow ($\partial/\partial t = 0$), a single inlet (in) and single outlet (out), and uniform properties over the cross-sections:

$$\left(\tilde{u} + \frac{1}{2} v^2 + gz + \frac{p}{\rho} \right)_{\text{out}} \dot{m} - \left(\tilde{u} + \frac{1}{2} v^2 + gz + \frac{p}{\rho} \right)_{\text{in}} \dot{m} = \dot{Q}_{\text{net}} + \dot{W}_{\text{shaft}} \quad (87)$$

8.4 Extension to Bernoulli Equation (Mechanical Energy)

Divide the equation by the mass flow rate $\dot{m}$ to express everything per unit mass:

$$\left(\frac{1}{2} v^2 + gz + \frac{p}{\rho} \right)_{\text{out}} - \left(\frac{1}{2} v^2 + gz + \frac{p}{\rho} \right)_{\text{in}} = q_{\text{net}} + w_{\text{shaft}} - (\tilde{u}_{\text{out}} - \tilde{u}_{\text{in}}) \quad (88)$$

where $q_{\text{net}} = \dot{Q}_{\text{net}}/\dot{m}$ and $w_{\text{shaft}} = \dot{W}_{\text{shaft}}/\dot{m}$.

We define the thermodynamic **loss** term (due to internal friction and viscosity) as:

$$\text{loss} = (\tilde{u}_{\text{out}} - \tilde{u}_{\text{in}}) - q_{\text{net}} \quad (89)$$

Thus, we obtain the **Extended Bernoulli Equation**:

Extended Bernoulli with Head Losses

$$\left(\frac{1}{2}v^2 + gz + \frac{p}{\rho} \right)_{\text{out}} - \left(\frac{1}{2}v^2 + gz + \frac{p}{\rho} \right)_{\text{in}} = w_{\text{shaft}} - \text{loss} \quad (90)$$

This differs from the classical Bernoulli equation ($w_{\text{shaft}} - \text{loss} = 0$) by strictly accounting for mechanical work added (e.g., pumps) and mechanical energy dissipated into heat via viscosity (losses).

8.5 Example Application

Given: A reservoir feeding a pipeline through a pump. The elevation change is H . The mass flow rate is $\dot{m}$, and the pump power is $\dot{W}_{\text{pump}}$.

Find: The internal loss of the system.

Assumptions:

- Velocity at the top of the reservoir (1) and the discharge (2) is negligible ($v_1 \approx v_2 \approx 0$).
- Pressures are atmospheric ($p_1 = p_2 = p_0$).
- Fluid is incompressible ($\rho = \text{const}$).

Applying the Extended Bernoulli equation:

$$\left(\frac{1}{2}(0)^2 + gH + \frac{p_0}{\rho} \right) - \left(\frac{1}{2}(0)^2 + g(0) + \frac{p_0}{\rho} \right) = w_{\text{shaft}} - \text{loss} \quad (91)$$

$$gH = w_{\text{shaft}} - \text{loss} \implies \text{loss} = \frac{\dot{W}_{\text{pump}}}{\dot{m}} - gH \quad (92)$$

Dimensional consistency check: The units of $w_{\text{shaft}} = \frac{\text{Power}}{\text{Mass Flow}}$ are:

$$\frac{\text{W}}{\text{kg/s}} = \frac{\text{J/s}}{\text{kg/s}} = \text{J/kg} = \frac{\text{N m}}{\text{kg}} = \frac{(\text{kg m/s}^2)\text{m}}{\text{kg}} = \text{m}^2/\text{s}^2 \quad (93)$$

The term gH has units of $(\text{m/s}^2) \cdot \text{m} = \text{m}^2/\text{s}^2$. The units are perfectly consistent.

Expert Analysis: The 2nd Law constraint on 'Loss'

The equation defines $\text{loss} = \Delta \tilde{u} - q_{\text{net}}$. The 2nd Law of Thermodynamics in differential form is $Tds = d\tilde{u} + pdv$, or in terms of entropy generation: $ds = \frac{\delta q}{T} + \delta s_{\text{gen}}$.

Combining the 1st and 2nd laws for an incompressible fluid ($dv = 0$), $d\tilde{u} = cdT = \delta q + T\delta s_{\text{gen}}$. Therefore, the macroscopic loss term is exactly the integral of entropy generated by viscous dissipation:

$$\text{loss} = \int_1^2 T ds_{\text{gen}} \quad (94)$$

Because entropy generation due to friction must be strictly positive ($ds_{\text{gen}} \geq 0$) according to the 2nd Law, we mathematically prove that $\text{loss} \geq 0$. This forces real fluids to always experience a drop in total mechanical pressure unless external work is applied.

9 Week-10Chapter 6: Differential Analysis

9.1 6.1 Conservation of Mass

9.1.1 6.1.1 From Integral to Differential Form

To establish the differential form of mass conservation, we analyze an arbitrary Control Volume (CV). The total system mass M_{sys} is conserved.

Reynolds Transport Theorem (RTT) for Mass

Applying the RTT to a control volume bounded by a control surface (CS), the rate of change of mass is zero:

$$\frac{DM_{sys}}{Dt} = 0 = \frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{CV} \rho dV + \int_{CS} \rho \vec{v} \cdot \hat{n} dA$$

Application of Gauss's Theorem (Divergence Theorem)

We apply the Divergence Theorem to convert the surface integral of the mass flux into a volume integral:

$$\int_{CS} \rho \vec{v} \cdot \hat{n} dA = \int_{CV} \nabla \cdot (\rho \vec{v}) dV$$

For a stationary, fixed control volume, the time derivative can be brought inside the integral:

$$\int_{CV} \left[\frac{\partial \rho}{\partial t} + \nabla \cdot (\rho \vec{v}) \right] dV = 0$$

Arbitrary Volume Argument

Because the integral holds true for *any* arbitrary control volume CV , the integrand itself must be identically zero everywhere in the continuum field.

9.1.2 6.1.2 The Continuity Equation

Result: General Forms of Continuity

The fundamental equation for the conservation of mass is given by:

$$\frac{\partial \rho}{\partial t} + \nabla \cdot (\rho \vec{v}) = 0$$

Applying the product rule ($\nabla \cdot (\rho \vec{v}) = \rho(\nabla \cdot \vec{v}) + \vec{v} \cdot \nabla \rho$), we obtain the Eulerian and Lagrangian forms:

- **Eulerian form:** $\frac{\partial \rho}{\partial t} + \rho(\nabla \cdot \vec{v}) + \vec{v} \cdot (\nabla \rho) = 0$
- **Lagrangian form:** $\frac{D\rho}{Dt} + \rho \nabla \cdot \vec{v} = 0$

Expert Analysis: Incompressible Limit

If the fluid is incompressible, the material derivative of the density is zero ($\frac{D\rho}{Dt} = 0$). The continuity equation rigorously simplifies to a geometric constraint on the velocity field:

$$\nabla \cdot \vec{v} = 0 \quad (\text{Divergence-free field})$$

9.2 6.2 Newton's 2nd Law (Conservation of Momentum)

9.2.1 6.2.1 Force Analysis and the Stress Tensor

Reynolds Transport Theorem for Momentum

Applying Newton's Second Law ($\frac{D}{Dt}(m\vec{v}) = \sum \vec{F}_{ext}$) using the RTT yields:

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \int_{CV} \rho \vec{v} dV + \int_{CS} \rho \vec{v} (\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n}) dA = \sum \vec{F}_{ext}$$

Forces acting on a fluid element:

- **Body Forces:** Act on the entire volume (e.g., gravity, $\int_{CV} \rho \vec{g} dV$).
- **Surface Forces:** Normal pressure forces and viscous stresses acting on boundaries.

Definition: The Stress Tensor

The viscous stress tensor $\bar{\bar{\tau}}$ is defined with components τ_{ij} , where i is the normal to the face and j is the direction of the stress.

$$\bar{\bar{\tau}} = \begin{pmatrix} \tau_{xx} & \tau_{xy} & \tau_{xz} \\ \tau_{yx} & \tau_{yy} & \tau_{yz} \\ \tau_{zx} & \tau_{zy} & \tau_{zz} \end{pmatrix}$$

Conservation of angular momentum dictates symmetry: $\tau_{ij} = \tau_{ji}$.

Cauchy Stress Tensor Formulation

The combined total surface stress tensor $\bar{\bar{\sigma}}$ incorporates both thermodynamic pressure p and the deviatoric viscous stress $\bar{\bar{\tau}}$:

$$\bar{\bar{\sigma}} = -p\bar{\bar{I}} + \bar{\bar{\tau}}$$

Thus, surface forces are: $\int_{CS} \bar{\bar{\sigma}} \cdot \hat{n} dA = \int_{CV} (-\nabla p + \nabla \cdot \bar{\bar{\tau}}) dV$.

9.2.2 6.2.2 Cauchy's Equation of Motion

Theorem: Differential Momentum Balance

For an *incompressible* flow ($\rho = \text{cte}$), we analyze the convective flux using the dyadic product:

$$\nabla \cdot (\rho \vec{v} \otimes \vec{v}) = \rho (\vec{v} \cdot \nabla) \vec{v}$$

Substituting this and the force integrals into the RTT formulation leads to Cauchy's Equation.

Cauchy's Equation of Motion

$$\rho \left(\frac{\partial \vec{v}}{\partial t} + \vec{v} \cdot \nabla \vec{v} \right) = -\nabla p + \rho \vec{g} + \nabla \cdot \bar{\bar{\tau}}$$

This explicitly states that $\rho \vec{a}$ equals the sum of pressure gradients, body forces, and viscous divergence.

9.3 6.3 The Navier-Stokes Equations

9.3.1 6.3.1 Newtonian Constitutive Relation

Definition: Linear Stress-Strain Relationship

For a Newtonian fluid, viscous stresses are linearly proportional to the local strain rate. In 3D tensor notation:

$$\tau_{ij} = \mu \left(\frac{\partial v_i}{\partial x_j} + \frac{\partial v_j}{\partial x_i} \right)$$

where μ is the dynamic viscosity.

9.3.2 6.3.2 Final Derivation for Incompressible Flow

Taking the divergence of the Newtonian viscous stress tensor ($\nabla \cdot \bar{\bar{\tau}}$), we find for the j -th component:

$$\partial_i \tau_{ij} = \mu (\partial_i \partial_i v_j + \partial_i \partial_j v_i) = \mu (\nabla^2 v_j + \partial_j (\nabla \cdot \vec{v}))$$

Since $\nabla \cdot \vec{v} = 0$ for incompressible flow, $\nabla \cdot \bar{\bar{\tau}} = \mu \nabla^2 \vec{v}$.

Result: The Navier-Stokes Equation

Substituting the viscous term into Cauchy's equation yields the governing equation for incompressible flow:

$$\rho \left(\frac{\partial \vec{v}}{\partial t} + \vec{v} \cdot \nabla \vec{v} \right) = -\nabla p + \rho \vec{g} + \mu \nabla^2 \vec{v}$$

10 Lecture 11: Fluid Dynamics

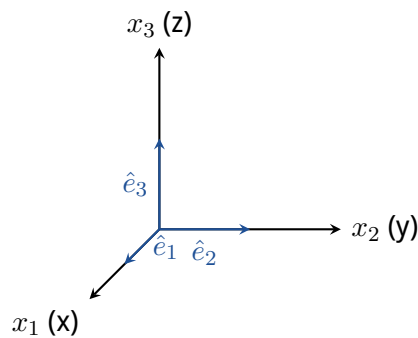
10.1 Intermezzo: Concepts from Analysis III

Reynolds Transport Theorem Notation

$$\int_{CS} \rho \vec{v} (\vec{v} \cdot \hat{n}) dA + \int_{CV} \frac{\partial}{\partial t} (\rho \vec{v}) dV = \int_{CV} \rho \left(\frac{\partial \vec{v}}{\partial t} + \vec{v} \cdot \nabla \vec{v} \right) dV$$

10.1.1 I) Einstein Notation

Cartesian Coordinates:



Cartesian vectors:

$$\vec{v} = v_x \hat{e}_x + v_y \hat{e}_y + v_z \hat{e}_z = v_1 \hat{e}_1 + v_2 \hat{e}_2 + v_3 \hat{e}_3$$

$$\vec{v} = \sum_{i=1}^3 v_i \hat{e}_i = v_i \hat{e}_i \quad (\text{Einstein Summation Notation})$$

Derivatives:

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial x_i} = \partial_i$$

$$\partial_i v_i = \nabla \cdot \vec{v}$$

Convective derivative component:

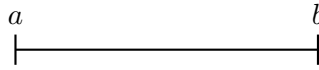
$$u_j \partial_j v_i = u_1 \partial_1 v_i + u_2 \partial_2 v_i + u_3 \partial_3 v_i = \vec{u} \cdot \nabla v_i = (\vec{u} \cdot \nabla \vec{v})_i$$

10.1.2 II) Gauss Theorem / Divergence Theorem

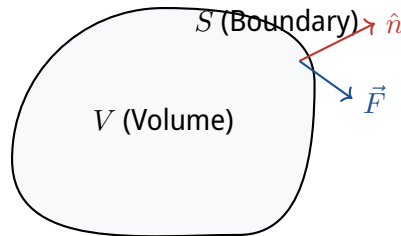
Compare to an $f(x)$ function in 1D:

$$\int_a^b \partial_x f(x) dx = f(b) - f(a)$$

Integrating the derivative over the domain = evaluating the function at the boundary.



Generalized for a vector field $\vec{F}$:



Theorem: Divergence Theorem / Gauss

$$\int_V \nabla \cdot \vec{F} dV = \int_S (\vec{F} \cdot \hat{n}) dA = \int_S \vec{F} \cdot d\vec{A}$$

Using Einstein's notation:

$$\int_V \partial_i F_i dV = \int_S F_i n_i dA$$

Generalized for a Tensor (rank 2) $\bar{\bar{T}}$: Einstein's version:

$$\int_V \partial_i T_{ij} dV = \int_S T_{ij} n_i dA$$

$$\int_V \nabla \cdot \bar{\bar{T}} dV = \int_S \hat{n} \cdot \bar{\bar{T}} dA = \int_S \bar{\bar{T}} \cdot \hat{n} dA \quad (\text{if } \bar{\bar{T}} \text{ is symmetric})$$

10.1.3 Outer Products of Vectors

Given $\vec{u}, \vec{v} \in \mathbb{R}^3$ as Cartesian vectors:

$$\vec{u} = u_i \hat{e}_i = \begin{pmatrix} u_1 \\ u_2 \\ u_3 \end{pmatrix}, \quad \vec{v} = v_i \hat{e}_i = \begin{pmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ v_3 \end{pmatrix}$$

Inner Product: $\cdot : \mathbb{R}^3 \times \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$

$$\vec{v}, \vec{u} \rightarrow \vec{v} \cdot \vec{u} = v_i u_i \left(= \sum_{i=1}^3 v_i u_i \right)$$

Outer Product: $\mathbb{R}^3 \times \mathbb{R}^3 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{3 \times 3}$

$$\vec{v}, \vec{u} \rightarrow \vec{v} \vec{u} \quad (\text{no dot})$$

$$(\vec{v}\vec{u})_{ij} = v_i u_j$$

$$\vec{v}\vec{u} = \vec{v} \otimes \vec{u} \quad (\text{Continuum Mechanics Notation})$$

MATLAB-style Notation

Idea: "Everything is a matrix."

$$\vec{v} \in \mathbb{R}^{3 \times 1}, \quad \vec{v} = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ v_3 \end{bmatrix}$$

For matrices, we can define the transpose $\top : \mathbb{R}^{n \times m} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{m \times n}$. Thus:

$$\vec{v}^\top = [v_1 \quad v_2 \quad v_3] \quad (\text{"row vector" vs "column vector"})$$

Matrix Products ($\mathbb{R}^{n \times m} \times \mathbb{R}^{m \times k} \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^{n \times k}$):

$$\vec{v}^\top \vec{u} = [v_1 \quad v_2 \quad v_3] \begin{bmatrix} u_1 \\ u_2 \\ u_3 \end{bmatrix} = \vec{v} \cdot \vec{u}$$

$$\vec{v}\vec{u}^\top = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ v_3 \end{bmatrix} [u_1 \quad u_2 \quad u_3] = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 u_1 & v_1 u_2 & v_1 u_3 \\ v_2 u_1 & v_2 u_2 & v_2 u_3 \\ v_3 u_1 & v_3 u_2 & v_3 u_3 \end{bmatrix} = (\vec{v}\vec{u})_{ij}$$

Where $\vec{v}\vec{u} = \vec{v} \otimes \vec{u}$ (Outer product).

10.2 Navier-Stokes Equations

For an incompressible fluid with $\rho = \text{const}$ and $\mu = \text{const}$:

Navier-Stokes Equations

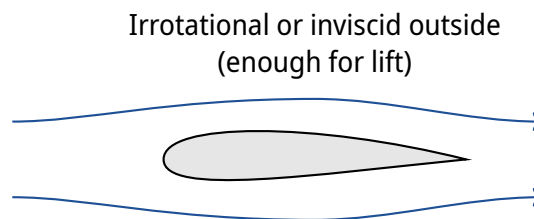
$$\rho \left(\frac{\partial \vec{v}}{\partial t} + \vec{v} \cdot \nabla \vec{v} \right) = -\nabla p + \rho \vec{g} + \mu \nabla^2 \vec{v}$$
$$\nabla \cdot \vec{v} = 0$$

+ Boundary Conditions
+ Initial Conditions

They describe ALL fluid flows.

- Partial differential equations
- 4 equations for 4 unknown fields (v_x, v_y, v_z, p)
- 1st order in time, 2nd order in space
- Non-linear

Outlook: Aim: Describe flows such as flow over an airfoil.



Determine: Lift, Drag, Stall, etc. Problem: Navier-Stokes equations are difficult to solve (impossible analytically for most cases). We look at special cases and approximations:

- Compressible $\leftrightarrow$ Incompressible
- Steady $\leftrightarrow$ Unsteady
- Viscous $\leftrightarrow$ Inviscid
- Rotational $\leftrightarrow$ Irrotational
- 3D $\leftrightarrow$ 2D

10.3 6.3 Reynolds Numbers

Consider the Navier-Stokes momentum equation:

$$\rho \frac{\partial \vec{v}}{\partial t} + \rho \vec{v} \cdot \nabla \vec{v} = -\nabla p + \rho \vec{g} + \mu \nabla^2 \vec{v}$$

"Scaling" of the terms:

- Inertial term: $\rho \vec{v} \cdot \nabla \vec{v} \sim \rho \frac{V^2}{L}$
- Viscous term: $\mu \nabla^2 \vec{v} \sim \mu \frac{V}{L^2}$

Where V is a characteristic velocity (difference) and L is a characteristic length.

Reynolds Number

$$Re := \frac{\text{Inertial}}{\text{Viscous}} = \frac{\rho \frac{V^2}{L}}{\mu \frac{V}{L^2}} = \frac{\rho V L}{\mu} = \frac{V L}{\nu}$$

where $\nu = \frac{\mu}{\rho}$ is the kinematic viscosity.

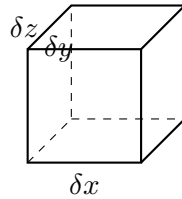
If $Re \gg 1$, we ignore viscosity:

$$\rho \left(\frac{\partial \vec{v}}{\partial t} + \vec{v} \cdot \nabla \vec{v} \right) = -\nabla p + \rho \vec{g}$$

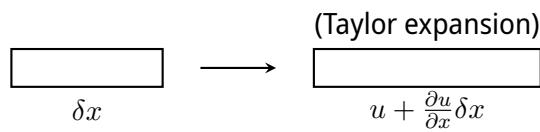
This is the **Euler equation** for inviscid flow.

10.4 6.4 Vorticity and Circulation

10.4.1 Deformation of a fluid element



Deformation $\leftrightarrow$ Linear deformations:



$$\frac{d(\delta x)}{dt} = \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} \delta x \implies \frac{1}{\delta x} \frac{d(\delta x)}{dt} = \frac{\partial u}{\partial x}$$

Also:

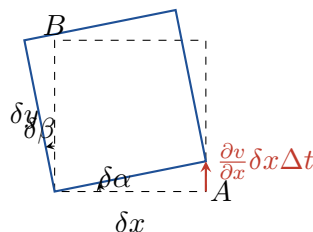
- $\frac{\partial v}{\partial y}$: linear deformation in y
- $\frac{\partial w}{\partial z}$: linear deformation in z

Volume change: $\delta V = \delta x \delta y \delta z$

$$\frac{1}{\delta V} \frac{d(\delta V)}{dt} = \frac{1}{\delta x} \frac{d(\delta x)}{dt} + \frac{1}{\delta y} \frac{d(\delta y)}{dt} + \frac{1}{\delta z} \frac{d(\delta z)}{dt} = \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} + \frac{\partial w}{\partial z} = \nabla \cdot \vec{v}$$

If $\rho = \text{cte}$ (incompressible), then $\nabla \cdot \vec{v} = 0$.

10.4.2 Angular Deformation



Angular velocity of segment OA :

$$\omega_{OA} = \lim_{\Delta t \rightarrow 0} \frac{\delta \alpha}{\Delta t} = \lim_{\Delta t \rightarrow 0} \frac{1}{\Delta t} \left(\frac{(\frac{\partial v}{\partial x} \delta x) \Delta t}{\delta x} \right) = \frac{\partial v}{\partial x}$$

Similarly for segment OB (clockwise):

$$\omega_{OB} = -\frac{\partial u}{\partial y}$$

Average rotation (Rotation of the bisector line):

$$\omega_z = \frac{1}{2}(\omega_{OA} + \omega_{OB}) = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial v}{\partial x} - \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} \right)$$

Similarly for the other axes:

$$\omega_x = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial w}{\partial y} - \frac{\partial v}{\partial z} \right), \quad \omega_y = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial u}{\partial z} - \frac{\partial w}{\partial x} \right)$$

Angular velocity vector:

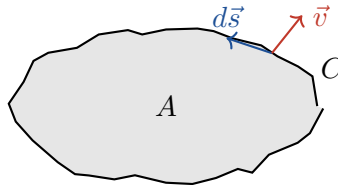
$$\vec{\omega} = \omega_x \hat{i} + \omega_y \hat{j} + \omega_z \hat{k} = \frac{1}{2} \nabla \times \vec{v}$$

Definition: Vorticity

The vorticity $\vec{\zeta}$ is defined as twice the angular velocity:

$$\vec{\zeta} = \nabla \times \vec{v} = \text{curl } \vec{v}$$

10.4.3 Circulation



Counter-clockwise path (Right-hand rule)

Vorticity integrated over the Area gives Circulation Γ :

$$\Gamma = \oint_C \vec{v} \cdot d\vec{s} \stackrel{\text{Stokes}}{=} \int_A (\nabla \times \vec{v}) \cdot d\vec{A}$$

Show: Inviscid flow $\implies$ No change in rotation (Kelvin's Circulation Theorem)

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{D\Gamma}{Dt} &= \frac{d\Gamma}{dt} = \frac{d}{dt} \oint_C \vec{v} \cdot d\vec{s} = \oint_C \frac{d\vec{v}}{dt} \cdot d\vec{s} \\ &= \oint_C \left[\frac{\partial \vec{v}}{\partial t} + \vec{v} \cdot \nabla \vec{v} \right] \cdot d\vec{s} \end{aligned}$$

Using Navier-Stokes for inviscid flow ($\mu \rightarrow 0$):

$$\Rightarrow \frac{D\Gamma}{Dt} = \oint_C \frac{1}{\rho} (-\nabla p + \rho \vec{g}) \cdot d\vec{s}$$

Since $\rho \vec{g} = -\rho g \hat{k} = \nabla(-\rho g z)$:

$$= \oint_C \nabla \left(\frac{-p - \rho g z}{\rho} \right) \cdot d\vec{s}$$

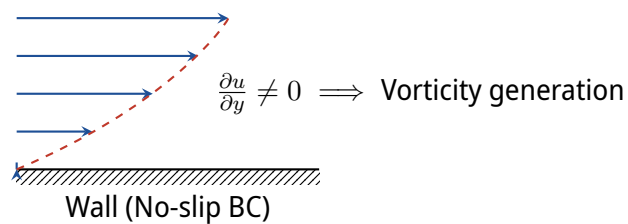
By Stokes' Theorem:

$$\oint_C \nabla \phi \cdot d\vec{s} = \int_A \nabla \times (\nabla \phi) \cdot d\vec{A} = 0 \quad (\text{since } \nabla \times \nabla \phi = \vec{0})$$

$$\Rightarrow \frac{d\Gamma}{dt} = 0 \quad (\text{for inviscid flow, } \Gamma \text{ is conserved})$$

Because the curve C is arbitrary, for the vorticity: **An inviscid flow with initially zero vorticity ($\nabla \times \vec{v} = \vec{0}$) remains irrotational.**

Q: How is vorticity generated in a flow? $\Rightarrow$ Wall with no-slip boundary condition!



11 Week 12:

11.1 6.5 Irrotational / Potential Flow

Assumptions for Potential Flow

We assume the flow is:

1. **Incompressible** ($\rho = \text{const}$)
2. **Inviscid** ($\mu = 0$)
3. **Irrotational** ($\nabla \times \vec{v} = \vec{0}$)

Since the flow is irrotational ($\nabla \times \vec{v} = \vec{0}$), vector calculus dictates that the velocity field must be the gradient of a scalar field. Therefore, there exists a scalar function Φ such that:

$$\nabla \Phi = \vec{v} \quad (95)$$

where Φ is defined as the **Velocity Potential**.

Using the continuity equation for an incompressible fluid:

$$\nabla \cdot \vec{v} = 0 \quad (\text{since } \rho = \text{const}) \quad (96)$$

Substituting $\vec{v} = \nabla \Phi$ into the continuity equation yields the **Laplace equation** for the velocity potential:

Laplace Equation

$$\nabla^2 \Phi = 0 \quad (97)$$

11.1.1 Momentum Balance (Navier-Stokes for Inviscid, Incompressible Flow)

Starting with the Euler equation (Navier-Stokes assuming inviscid $\mu = 0$ and incompressible $\rho = \text{const}$):

$$\rho \left[\frac{\partial \vec{v}}{\partial t} + \vec{v} \cdot \nabla \vec{v} \right] = \rho \vec{g} - \nabla p \quad (98)$$

We utilize the following vector identity for the convective acceleration term:

$$\vec{v} \cdot \nabla \vec{v} = \frac{1}{2} \nabla (\vec{v} \cdot \vec{v}) - \vec{v} \times (\nabla \times \vec{v}) \quad (99)$$

Since the flow is *irrotational*, the vorticity is zero ($\nabla \times \vec{v} = \vec{0}$). The convective acceleration simplifies to:

$$\vec{v} \cdot \nabla \vec{v} = \frac{1}{2} \nabla \|\vec{v}\|^2 = \frac{1}{2} \nabla v^2 \quad (100)$$

Assuming a conservative body force field where $\vec{g} = -g\hat{k}$ (gravity acts downwards), we can write $\rho\vec{g} = -\nabla(\rho gz)$. Substituting this into the momentum balance:

$$\rho \left[\frac{\partial \vec{v}}{\partial t} + \frac{1}{2} \nabla v^2 \right] + \nabla p + \nabla(\rho gz) = \vec{0} \quad (101)$$

Now, substituting $\vec{v} = \nabla\Phi$, we can rewrite the unsteady term:

$$\begin{aligned} \rho \frac{\partial}{\partial t}(\nabla\Phi) + \frac{\rho}{2} \nabla v^2 + \nabla p + \nabla(\rho gz) &= \vec{0} \\ \nabla \left[\rho \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial t} + \frac{\rho}{2} v^2 + p + \rho gz \right] &= \vec{0} \end{aligned}$$

Integrating over the spatial domain gives the **Unsteady Bernoulli Equation**:

Unsteady Bernoulli Equation

$$\rho \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial t} + \frac{\rho}{2} v^2 + p + \rho gz = \text{constant} \quad (102)$$

If the flow is **steady**, then $\frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial t} = 0$, recovering the classic Bernoulli equation:

$$\frac{\rho}{2} v^2 + p + \rho gz = \text{constant} \quad (103)$$

Solution Strategy for Incompressible, Inviscid, Irrotational Flow

- **Step 1:** Solve the Laplace equation $\nabla^2\Phi = 0$ with appropriate Boundary Conditions (BCs).
- **Step 2:** Compute the velocity field using $\vec{v} = \nabla\Phi$.
- **Step 3:** Use the Bernoulli equation to compute the pressure field p .
- **Step 4:** Integrate the pressure over boundaries to get the net force on a body.

11.2 6.6 2D Flow - Stream Function

From the conservation of mass ($\rho = \text{const}$), we have $\nabla \cdot \vec{v} = 0$. In 2D Cartesian coordinates, this expands to:

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} = 0 \quad (104)$$

If a stream function $\Psi(x, y)$ exists with the properties:

$$u = \frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial y}, \quad v = -\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial x} \quad (105)$$

Let's check continuity:

$$\nabla \cdot \vec{v} = \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} = \frac{\partial}{\partial x} \left(\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial y} \right) + \frac{\partial}{\partial y} \left(-\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial x} \right) = \frac{\partial^2 \Psi}{\partial x \partial y} - \frac{\partial^2 \Psi}{\partial y \partial x} = 0 \quad (106)$$

$\Rightarrow$ A 2D velocity field derived from a stream function Ψ will, by construction, automatically satisfy the continuity equation.

Physical Meaning of the Stream Function

Consider the exact differential of Ψ :

$$d\Psi = \frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial x} dx + \frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial y} dy = -v dx + u dy \quad (107)$$

For a constant value of Ψ (i.e., along a line where $\Psi = \text{const}$), we have $d\Psi = 0$:

$$-v dx + u dy = 0 \Rightarrow v dx = u dy \Rightarrow \frac{v}{u} = \frac{dy}{dx} \quad (108)$$

This is exactly the equation of a **streamline** (where the velocity vector is tangent to the path). Thus, Ψ is constant along a streamline.

Polar Coordinates Extension

For a 2D flow in polar coordinates (r, θ) :

$$\vec{v} = v_r \hat{e}_r + v_\theta \hat{e}_\theta$$

The continuity equation is $\nabla \cdot \vec{v} = \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial}{\partial r} (r v_r) + \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial v_\theta}{\partial \theta} = 0$. The stream function $\Psi(r, \theta)$ is defined as:

$$v_r = \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial \theta}, \quad v_\theta = -\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial r} \quad (109)$$

11.3 6.7 2D Potential Flow

Assuming a 2D fluid flow that is **incompressible** and **inviscid**:

- 2D flow $\implies$ There is a stream function Ψ .
- Irrotational $\implies$ There is a velocity potential Φ .

Q: What is the relation between the stream function Ψ and velocity potential Φ ?

For Φ , mass conservation requires:

$$0 = \nabla \cdot \vec{v} = \nabla \cdot (\nabla \Phi) = \nabla^2 \Phi \implies \boxed{\frac{\partial^2 \Phi}{\partial x^2} + \frac{\partial^2 \Phi}{\partial y^2} = 0} \quad (110)$$

For Ψ , the irrotationality condition requires:

$$\vec{0} = \nabla \times \vec{v} \implies 0 = \frac{\partial v}{\partial x} - \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} \quad (111)$$

$$0 = \frac{\partial}{\partial x} \left(-\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial x} \right) - \frac{\partial}{\partial y} \left(\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial y} \right) \quad (112)$$

$$0 = -\frac{\partial^2 \Psi}{\partial x^2} - \frac{\partial^2 \Psi}{\partial y^2} \implies \boxed{\frac{\partial^2 \Psi}{\partial x^2} + \frac{\partial^2 \Psi}{\partial y^2} = 0} \quad (113)$$

Key Result

Both the Velocity Potential Φ and the Stream Function Ψ satisfy the 2D Laplace equation.

11.3.1 Orthogonality of Φ and Ψ

Consider the differential of Φ :

$$d\Phi = \frac{\partial\Phi}{\partial x} dx + \frac{\partial\Phi}{\partial y} dy = u dx + v dy \quad (114)$$

Along an **equipotential line** ($\Phi = \text{const}$), $d\Phi = 0$:

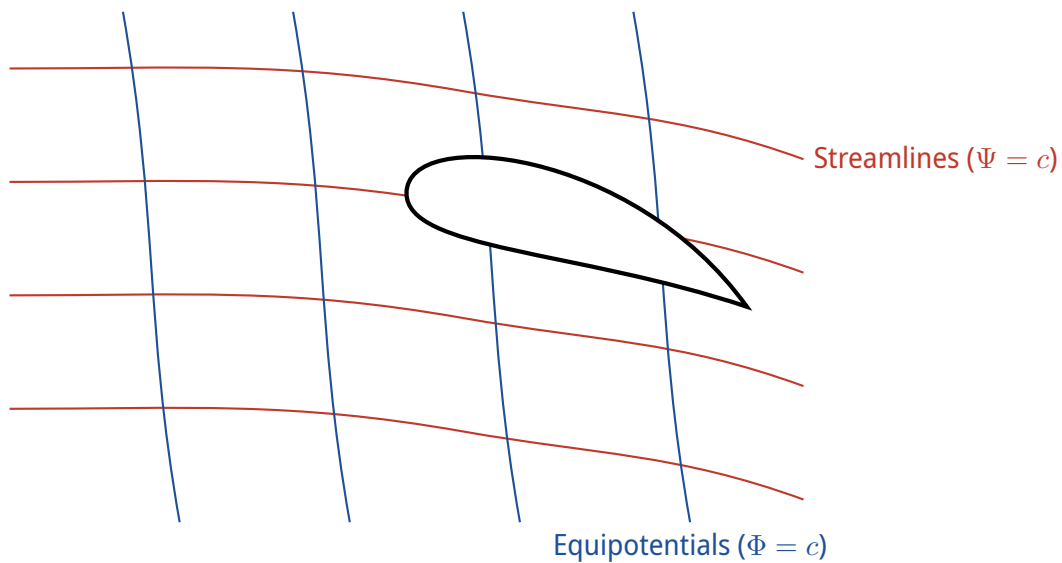
$$u dx + v dy = 0 \implies \left. \frac{dy}{dx} \right|_{\Phi=\text{const}} = -\frac{u}{v} \quad (115)$$

Recall that for a **streamline** ($\Psi = \text{const}$):

$$\left. \frac{dy}{dx} \right|_{\Psi=\text{const}} = \frac{v}{u} \quad (116)$$

Since the product of their slopes is $\left(-\frac{u}{v}\right) \times \left(\frac{v}{u}\right) = -1$, the equipotential lines ($\Phi = \text{const}$) are **perpendicular** to the streamlines ($\Psi = \text{const}$).

Furthermore, the closer the equipotential lines are, the higher the gradient $\nabla\Phi$, which implies the faster the fluid element is moving.



Example: Stagnation Point Flow

Given the velocity potential:

$$\Phi = \frac{a}{2}(x^2 - y^2)$$

Compute the stream function Ψ (if it exists).

1. Check if incompressible ($\implies \nabla^2 \Phi = 0$):

$$\frac{\partial^2 \Phi}{\partial x^2} + \frac{\partial^2 \Phi}{\partial y^2} = a + (-a) = 0$$

Since the Laplacian is zero, the flow is incompressible, and a stream function exists.

2. Define Ψ using the Cauchy-Riemann relations: First, derive the velocity field from Φ :

$$u = \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial x} = ax, \quad v = \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial y} = -ay$$

Now, equate these to the stream function derivatives:

$$\begin{cases} u = \frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial y} = ax \\ v = -\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial x} = -ay \end{cases}$$

Integrate the first equation with respect to y :

$$\Psi = axy + f(x)$$

Differentiate this with respect to x and plug into the second equation:

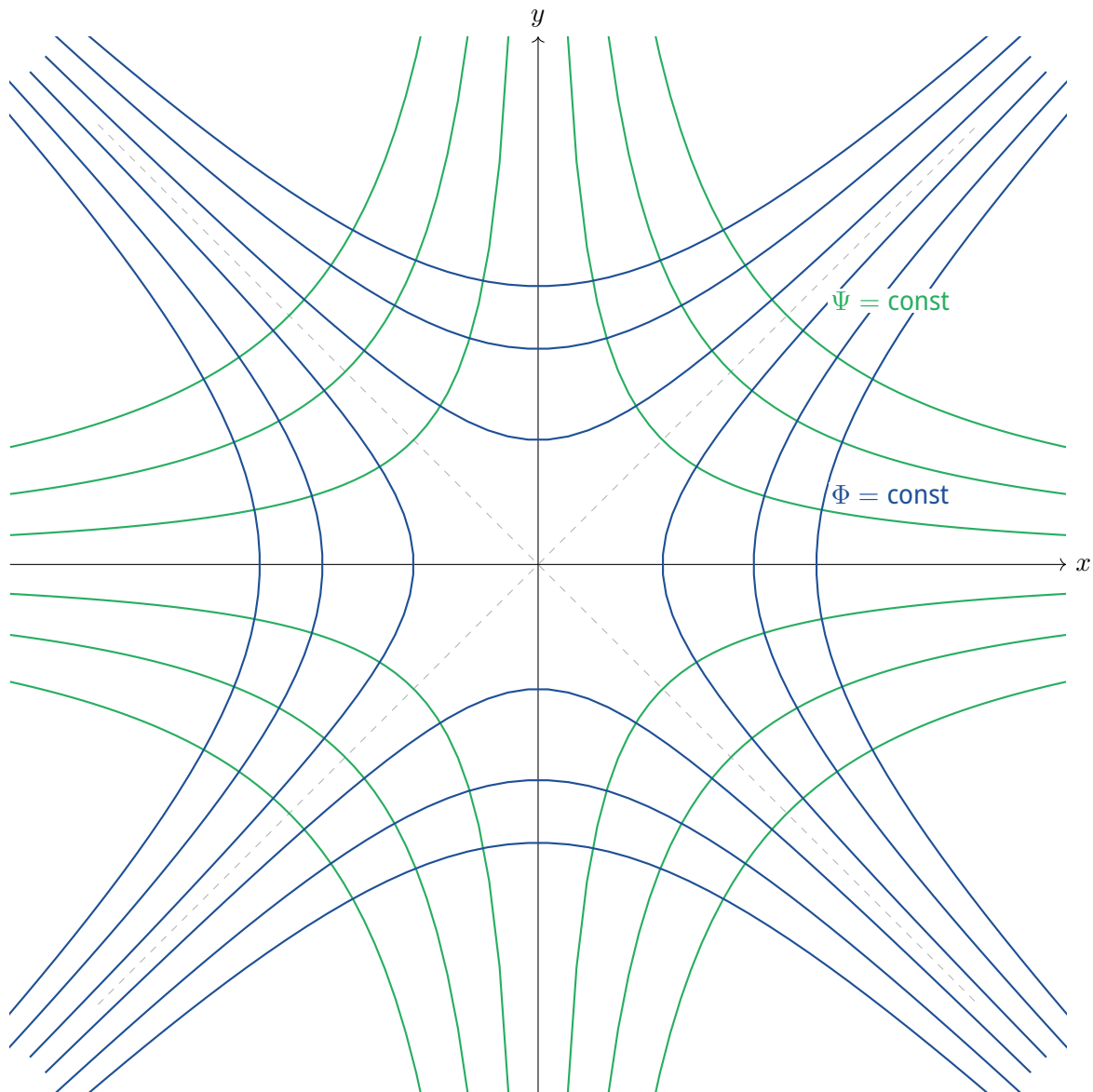
$$\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial x} = ay + f'(x) = -ay \implies f'(x) = 0 \implies f(x) = C$$

Thus, $\Psi = axy + C$. We can set $C = 0$ (free gauge choice).

$$\Psi = axy$$

3. Plot the streamlines and equipotential lines:

- Streamlines: $\Psi = \text{const} \implies axy = c \implies y = \frac{c}{ax}$ (Hyperbolas in quadrants 1, 3 or 2, 4)
- Equipotentials: $\Phi = \text{const} \implies x^2 - y^2 = c'$ (Hyperbolas opening on axes)



Expert Analysis: General Concept for Solving 2D Potential Flow

The foundational principle of 2D potential flow dictates that both the velocity potential and the stream function obey Laplace's equation:

$$\nabla^2 \Phi = 0 \quad \text{and} \quad \nabla^2 \Psi = 0 \quad (117)$$

Because the Laplace equation is **linear** and **homogeneous**, solutions can be superposed. Complex flow fields around arbitrary bodies can be systematically constructed by linearly combining elementary potential flows (such as uniform flows, sources, sinks, doublets, and point vortices).

12 Week 13 - Potential Flows and Superposition

Due to the linearity of the Laplace equation, complex flow patterns can be constructed by superimposing simple, elementary potential flow solutions.

12.1 6.7.1 Basic Potential Flow Solutions

12.1.1 a) Uniform Flow

Definition: Uniform Flow

A uniform flow is a constant velocity field oriented along a specific direction. For a horizontal flow of magnitude U_0 along the $+x$ axis, the velocity components in Cartesian coordinates are:

$$u = U_0 = \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial x} = \frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial y}$$

$$v = 0 = \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial y} = -\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial x}$$

Integrating these relations yields the potentials for a uniform flow:

Uniform Flow Potentials

Velocity Potential: $\Phi(x, y) = U_0 x$

Stream Function: $\Psi(x, y) = U_0 y$

In polar coordinates ($x = r \cos \theta$, $y = r \sin \theta$), these potentials are expressed as:

$$\Phi(r, \theta) = U_0 r \cos \theta \quad \Psi(r, \theta) = U_0 r \sin \theta$$

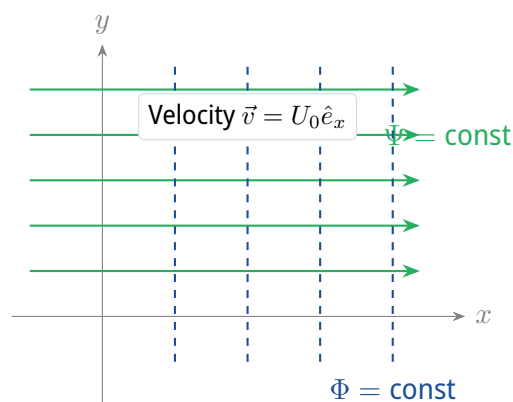


Figure 1: Equipotential lines (Φ , dashed vertical) and streamlines (Ψ , solid horizontal) for a uniform flow parallel to the x -axis.

12.1.2 b) Source / Sink (Line Source)

Let m represent the volumetric rate of flow emanating from a line source per unit length perpendicular to the plane of the flow. If $m > 0$, fluid flows radially outwards (source). If $m < 0$, fluid flows radially inwards (sink).

Using polar coordinates with velocity field $\vec{v} = v_r \hat{e}_r + v_\theta \hat{e}_\theta$, we apply the conservation of mass through a control surface of radius r :

$$m \Delta t = (2\pi r \cdot 1) v_r \Delta t \implies v_r = \frac{m}{2\pi r}, \quad v_\theta = 0$$

Line Source Potentials

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Radial Velocity: } v_r &= \frac{m}{2\pi r} = \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial r} = \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial \theta} \\ \text{Azimuthal Velocity: } v_\theta &= 0 = \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial \theta} = -\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial r} \end{aligned}$$

Integrating the equations in the box yields:

$$\Phi(r, \theta) = \frac{m}{2\pi} \ln(r) \quad \Psi(r, \theta) = \frac{m}{2\pi} \theta$$

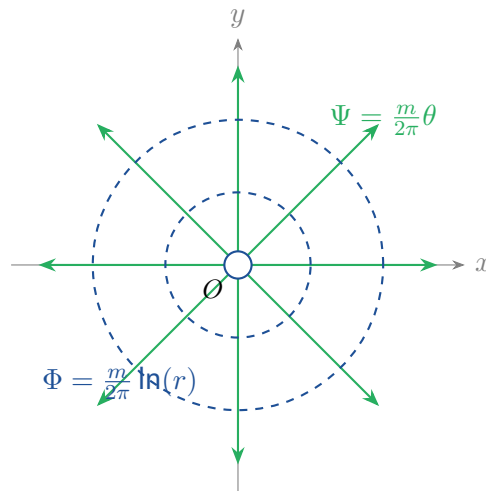


Figure 2: Streamlines (radial) and equipotential lines (concentric circles) for a line source at the origin.

12.1.3 c) The Line Vortex (Free / Irrotational Vortex)

A free vortex flow features concentric circular streamlines with a velocity potential that is mathematically conjugate to that of a source flow. By swapping the functional forms of the potential and stream functions, we obtain:

Free Vortex Potentials

$$\begin{aligned}\Phi(r, \theta) &= K\theta \\ \Psi(r, \theta) &= -K \ln(r)\end{aligned}$$

Where K is a constant representing the strength of the vortex. The velocity components are:

$$\begin{aligned}v_r &= \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial r} = 0 = \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial \theta} \\ v_\theta &= \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial \theta} = \frac{K}{r} = -\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial r}\end{aligned}$$

In a free vortex, the velocity is inversely proportional to the radius ($v_\theta \propto 1/r$).

12.1.4 d) Expert Analysis: Irrotationality and Circulation of a Free Vortex

Expert Analysis: How can a vortex be irrotational?

It may seem counter-intuitive that a flow spinning in circles is mathematically classified as “irrotational” ($\nabla \times \vec{v} = 0$). To clarify this, we distinguish between a **forced (rotational) vortex** and a **free (irrotational) vortex**:

- **Forced Vortex (Solid-body rotation):** $v_\theta = \omega r$. Fluid elements rotate about their own axes. Vorticity is non-zero everywhere ($\vec{\omega} = \nabla \times \vec{v} = 2\omega \hat{e}_z \neq 0$).
- **Free Vortex (Potential flow):** $v_\theta = K/r$. Local fluid elements translate along a circular path but do not rotate about their own centers. Calculating the vorticity in polar coordinates:

$$\omega_z = (\nabla \times \vec{v})_z = \frac{1}{r} \left[\frac{\partial(rv_\theta)}{\partial r} - \frac{\partial v_r}{\partial \theta} \right] = \frac{1}{r} \left[\frac{\partial(K)}{\partial r} - 0 \right] = 0 \quad (\text{for } r \neq 0)$$

Let us evaluate the circulation Γ around a circular contour of radius R centered at the origin:

$$\Gamma = \oint \vec{v} \cdot d\vec{s} = \int_0^{2\pi} (v_\theta \hat{e}_\theta) \cdot (R d\theta \hat{e}_\theta) = \int_0^{2\pi} \frac{K}{R} R d\theta = 2\pi K$$

Thus, the vortex strength constant K is directly related to the circulation Γ :

$$K = \frac{\Gamma}{2\pi}$$

Any contour enclosing the origin yields $\Gamma \neq 0$, indicating a line singularity at $r = 0$. However, for any closed loop that does not contain the origin, Stokes' theorem holds with $\oint \vec{v} \cdot d\vec{s} = \iint (\nabla \times \vec{v}) \cdot d\vec{A} = 0$, confirming the flow field is irrotational everywhere except at the singular origin point.

The final potential and stream functions for an irrotational vortex of circulation Γ are:

$$\Phi = \frac{\Gamma}{2\pi} \theta \quad \Psi = -\frac{\Gamma}{2\pi} \ln(r)$$

12.1.5 e) Doublet

A doublet is formed by placing a line source of strength $+m$ and a sink of strength $-m$ at a distance a apart, and taking the limit as $a \rightarrow 0$ while keeping the product $m \cdot a$ constant.

The stream function of the combined system is:

$$\Psi = \frac{m}{2\pi} (\theta_2 - \theta_1) = -\frac{m}{2\pi} \Delta\theta$$

For small separation distance a , we observe that $\Delta\theta \approx \frac{a \sin \theta}{r}$. Taking the limit as $a \rightarrow 0$ and $m \rightarrow \infty$ while holding the doublet strength $H = \frac{m \cdot a}{\pi}$ constant:

$$\Psi = \lim_{a \rightarrow 0} \left(-\frac{ma \sin \theta}{2\pi r} \right) = -\frac{H \sin \theta}{r} \quad \text{where} \quad H = \frac{ma}{2\pi}$$

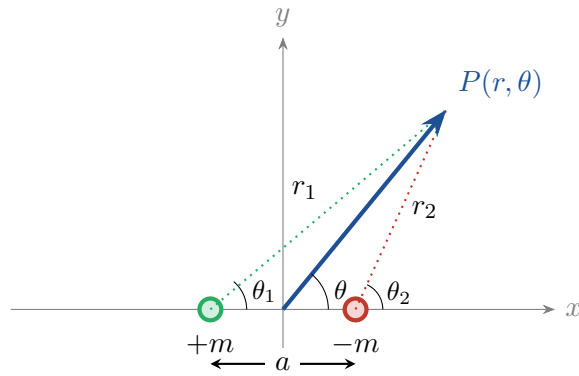


Figure 3: Geometric construction of a doublet from a source ($+m$) and a sink ($-m$).

Doublet Potentials

$$\Phi(r, \theta) = \frac{H \cos \theta}{r}$$

$$\Psi(r, \theta) = -\frac{H \sin \theta}{r}$$

The corresponding polar velocity components are:

$$v_r = \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial \theta} = -\frac{H \cos \theta}{r^2}$$

$$v_\theta = -\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial r} = -\frac{H \sin \theta}{r^2}$$

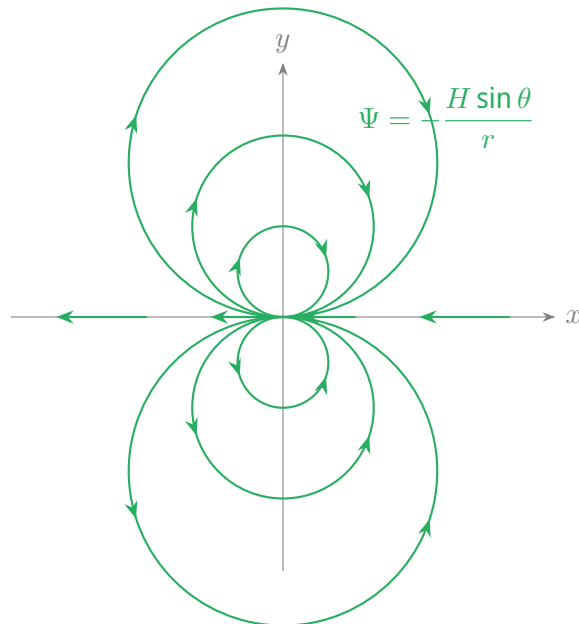


Figure 4: Doublet streamlines forming circular loops tangent to the x -axis at the origin.

12.2 6.7.2 Superpositions of Basic Solutions

12.2.1 Source in a Uniform Flow: The Rankine Half-Body

By combining a uniform flow parallel to the x -axis and a line source located at the origin, we construct the flow field around a semi-infinite body known as a Rankine half-body.

Rankine Half-Body Potentials

$$\begin{aligned}\Psi &= \Psi_{\text{UF}} + \Psi_{\text{Source}} = U_0 r \sin \theta + \frac{m}{2\pi} \theta \\ \Phi &= \Phi_{\text{UF}} + \Phi_{\text{Source}} = U_0 r \cos \theta + \frac{m}{2\pi} \ln(r)\end{aligned}$$

The velocity components are:

$$\begin{aligned}v_r &= \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial \theta} = U_0 \cos \theta + \frac{m}{2\pi r} \\ v_\theta &= -\frac{\partial \Psi}{\partial r} = -U_0 \sin \theta\end{aligned}$$

Finding the Stagnation Point To find the stagnation point, we set both velocity components to zero:

$$\begin{aligned}v_\theta = -U_0 \sin \theta = 0 &\implies \theta = \pi \quad (\text{upstream on the negative } x\text{-axis}) \\ v_r|_{(r_{sp}, \pi)} = -U_0 + \frac{m}{2\pi r_{sp}} = 0 &\implies r_{sp} = \frac{m}{2\pi U_0}\end{aligned}$$

Thus, the stagnation point is located at polar coordinates $(r, \theta) = \left(\frac{m}{2\pi U_0}, \pi\right)$, which corresponds to Cartesian coordinates $(x, y) = \left(-\frac{m}{2\pi U_0}, 0\right)$.

The Stagnation Streamline and Body Shape Evaluating the stream function Ψ at the stagnation point yields:

$$\Psi_{\text{stagnation}} = \Psi\left(\frac{m}{2\pi U_0}, \pi\right) = U_0 \left(\frac{m}{2\pi U_0}\right) \sin(\pi) + \frac{m}{2\pi} \pi = \frac{m}{2}$$

The equation of the dividing stagnation streamline $\Psi = \frac{m}{2}$ is given by:

$$U_0 r \sin \theta + \frac{m}{2\pi} \theta = \frac{m}{2} \implies r = \frac{m}{2\pi U_0} \frac{\pi - \theta}{\sin \theta}$$

Analyzing the key asymptotic dimensions of this body geometry:

- At $\theta = \frac{\pi}{2}$ (directly above the source):

$$r_{\theta=\pi/2} = \frac{m}{2\pi U_0} \frac{\pi - \pi/2}{\sin(\pi/2)} = \frac{m}{4U_0}$$

Thus, the half-width y at this position is $y = r \sin(\pi/2) = \frac{m}{4U_0}$.

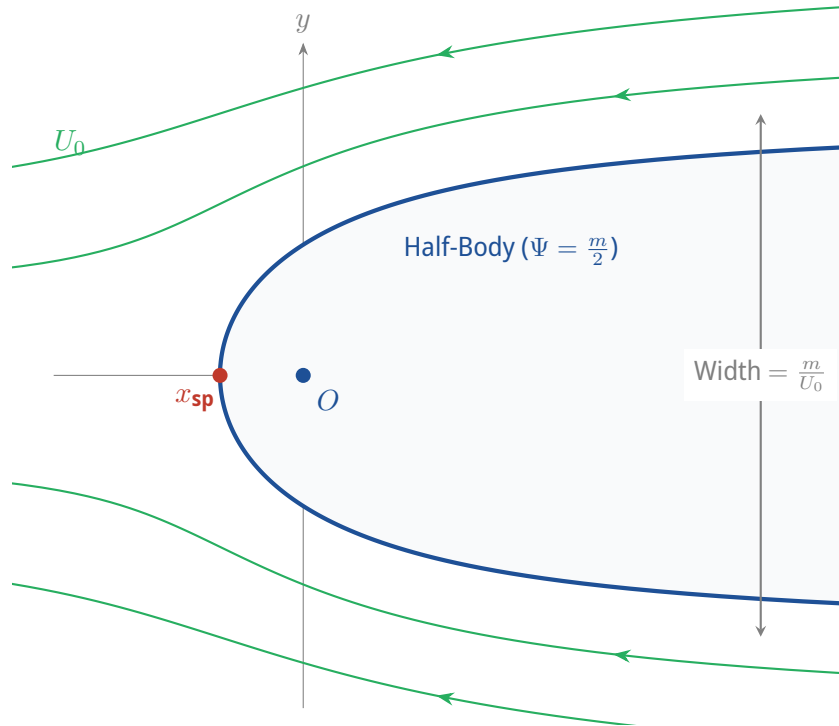


Figure 5: Potential flow streamlines around a Rankine half-body.

- **As $\theta \rightarrow 0$ (far downstream):**

$$y_{\infty} = \lim_{\theta \rightarrow 0^+} (r \sin \theta) = \lim_{\theta \rightarrow 0^+} \left(\frac{m(\pi - \theta)}{2\pi U_0} \right) = \frac{m}{2U_0}$$

Thus, the total asymptotic height of the half-body is $2y_{\infty} = \frac{m}{U_0}$.

Rankine Half-Body Wind Tunnel Analysis

Problem Statement:

A model representing a bridge pier is designed as a Rankine half-body. The wind tunnel air speed is $U_0 = 64 \text{ km/h}$. The total asymptotic width of the half-body downstream is $2y_\infty = 60 \text{ m}$.

1. Compute the source strength m required to model this flow.
2. Calculate the wind velocity magnitude at the top vertex point of the body where $\theta = \pi/2$.
3. Find the static pressure change between the free-stream flow and this vertex point.

Solution:

1. First, we convert the wind velocity to SI units:

$$U_0 = 64 \text{ km/h} = \frac{64 \times 1000}{3600} \text{ m/s} \approx 17.78 \text{ m/s}$$

Given the total asymptotic width is $2y_\infty = 60 \text{ m}$, the half-width is $y_\infty = 30 \text{ m}$. Using the asymptotic width relation:

$$y_\infty = \frac{m}{2U_0} \implies m = 2U_0 y_\infty = 2 \times 17.78 \text{ m/s} \times 30 \text{ m} \approx 1066.7 \text{ m}^2/\text{s}$$

2. At $\theta = \pi/2$, the radial coordinate along the surface of the body is:

$$r = \frac{m}{4U_0} = \frac{1066.7}{4 \times 17.78} = 15 \text{ m}$$

We evaluate the velocity components at $(r, \theta) = (15 \text{ m}, \pi/2)$:

$$v_r = U_0 \cos(\pi/2) + \frac{m}{2\pi r} = 0 + \frac{1066.7}{2\pi \times 15} = \frac{2U_0}{\pi} \approx 11.32 \text{ m/s}$$

$$v_\theta = -U_0 \sin(\pi/2) = -U_0 \approx -17.78 \text{ m/s}$$

The total velocity magnitude squared is:

$$V^2 = v_r^2 + v_\theta^2 = \left(\frac{2U_0}{\pi}\right)^2 + (-U_0)^2 = U_0^2 \left(1 + \frac{4}{\pi^2}\right)$$

Taking the square root:

$$V = U_0 \sqrt{1 + \frac{4}{\pi^2}} \approx 17.78 \times 1.1854 \approx 21.08 \text{ m/s} \approx 76 \text{ km/h}$$

3. Using Bernoulli's equation, assuming horizontal flow (negligible gravity difference):

$$p_\infty + \frac{1}{2}\rho U_0^2 = p_{\text{vertex}} + \frac{1}{2}\rho V^2$$

$$p_{\text{vertex}} - p_\infty = \frac{1}{2}\rho (U_0^2 - V^2) = \frac{1}{2}\rho U_0^2 \left[1 - \left(1 + \frac{4}{\pi^2}\right)\right] = -\frac{2\rho U_0^2}{\pi^2}$$

Taking standard air density $\rho \approx 1.2 \text{ kg/m}^3$:

$$\Delta p = p_{\text{vertex}} - p_\infty = -\frac{2 \times 1.2 \times (17.78)^2}{\pi^2} \approx -76.8 \text{ Pa}$$

There is a drop in static pressure of approximately 76.8 Pa due to flow acceleration.

Rankine Ovals

By superimposing a uniform flow, a line source ($+m$), and a line sink ($-m$) of equal strength separated by a distance $2a$ along the x -axis, we generate closed oval-shaped bodies known as **Rankine Ovals**.

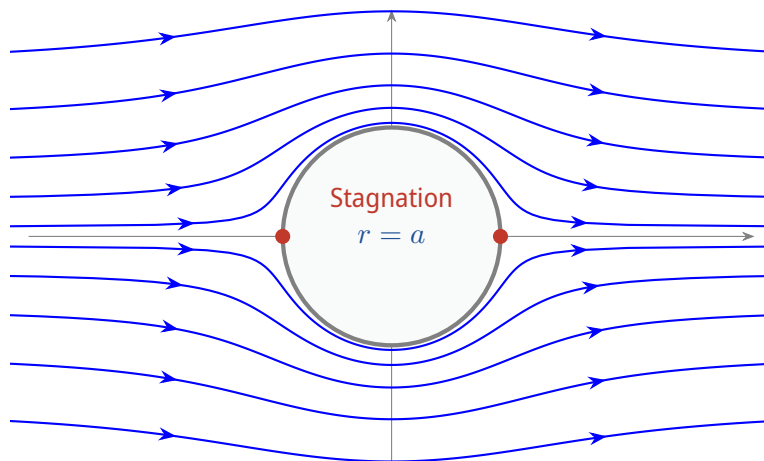
12.2.2 Flow Around a Circular Cylinder (Uniform Flow + Doublet)

Superimposing a uniform flow and a doublet at the origin creates the flow pattern around a solid circular cylinder.

Cylinder Flow Potentials

$$\Psi = U_0 \left(1 - \frac{H}{U_0 r^2} \right) r \sin \theta$$

$$\Phi = U_0 \left(1 + \frac{H}{U_0 r^2} \right) r \cos \theta$$



The stream function $\Psi = 0$ must represent the boundary of a solid cylinder of radius $r = a$. Setting $\Psi = 0$ at $r = a$:

$$U_0 \left(1 - \frac{H}{U_0 a^2} \right) a \sin \theta = 0 \implies H = U_0 a^2$$

Substituting the doublet strength $H = U_0 a^2$ back into the potentials yields:

Final Cylinder Potentials

$$\Psi = U_0 \left(1 - \frac{a^2}{r^2} \right) r \sin \theta$$

$$\Phi = U_0 \left(1 + \frac{a^2}{r^2} \right) r \cos \theta$$

The velocity components are:

$$v_r = \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial r} = U_0 \left(1 - \frac{a^2}{r^2} \right) \cos \theta$$

$$v_\theta = \frac{1}{r} \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial \theta} = -U_0 \left(1 + \frac{a^2}{r^2} \right) \sin \theta$$

On the Surface of the Cylinder ($r = a$) Evaluating the velocities on the cylinder boundary:

$$v_r|_{r=a} = 0$$

$$v_\theta|_{r=a} = -2U_0 \sin \theta$$

- The radial velocity is zero, satisfying the solid wall boundary condition.
- Stagnation points occur where $v_\theta = 0 \implies \theta = 0$ and $\theta = \pi$.
- The maximum velocity magnitude is $|v_\theta|_{\max} = 2U_0$, occurring at the top and bottom of the cylinder ($\theta = \pi/2$ and $\theta = 3\pi/2$).

Pressure Distribution and the Pressure Coefficient Applying Bernoulli's equation between the upstream free-stream (p_∞ , velocity U_0) and a point on the surface of the cylinder (p_s , velocity $v_\theta = -2U_0 \sin \theta$):

$$p_\infty + \frac{1}{2}\rho U_0^2 = p_s + \frac{1}{2}\rho v_\theta^2$$

$$p_s = p_\infty + \frac{1}{2}\rho U_0^2 \left(1 - \frac{v_\theta^2}{U_0^2} \right) = p_\infty + \frac{1}{2}\rho U_0^2 (1 - 4 \sin^2 \theta)$$

We define the dimensionless pressure coefficient, C_p :

Surface Pressure Coefficient

$$C_p = \frac{p_s - p_\infty}{\frac{1}{2}\rho U_0^2} = 1 - 4 \sin^2 \theta$$

Let us analyze the key coordinates of this pressure distribution:

- At stagnation points ($\theta = 0, \pi$): $C_p = 1$ (maximum pressure).
- At the sides ($\theta = \pi/2, 3\pi/2$): $C_p = -3$ (minimum pressure).
- Zero-crossing points ($C_p = 0 \implies \sin \theta = \pm 1/2$): $\theta = \pm 30^\circ, \pm 150^\circ$.

12.3 6.7.3 Aerodynamic Forces: D'Alembert's Paradox

The net aerodynamic forces per unit depth acting on the cylinder are calculated by integrating the surface pressure distribution. Let a be the radius of the cylinder.

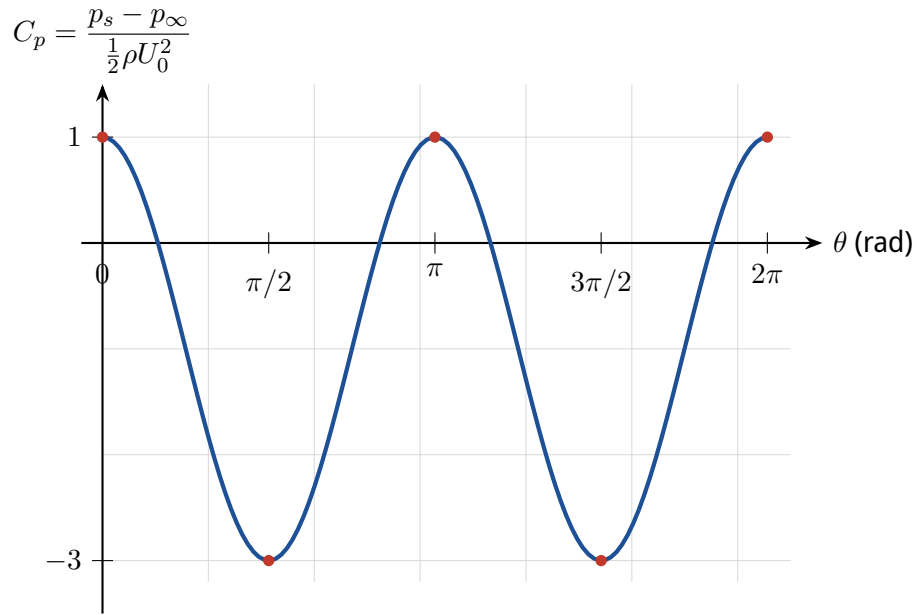


Figure 6: Dimensionless pressure coefficient distribution C_p along the cylinder boundary.

12.3.1 Lift Force (Vertical Component)

$$F_L = - \int_0^{2\pi} p_s \sin \theta a d\theta$$

Substituting $p_s(\theta) = p_\infty + \frac{1}{2}\rho U_0^2(1 - 4 \sin^2 \theta)$:

$$F_L = -a \int_0^{2\pi} \left[p_\infty + \frac{1}{2}\rho U_0^2(1 - 4 \sin^2 \theta) \right] \sin \theta d\theta$$

Due to top-bottom symmetry, the integral of any odd power of $\sin \theta$ over $[0, 2\pi]$ is zero:

$$\int_0^{2\pi} \sin \theta d\theta = 0, \quad \int_0^{2\pi} \sin^3 \theta d\theta = 0 \implies F_L = 0$$

12.3.2 Drag Force (Horizontal Component)

$$F_D = - \int_0^{2\pi} p_s \cos \theta a d\theta$$

$$F_D = -a \int_0^{2\pi} \left[p_\infty + \frac{1}{2}\rho U_0^2(1 - 4 \sin^2 \theta) \right] \cos \theta d\theta$$

Evaluating the terms:

$$\int_0^{2\pi} \cos \theta d\theta = 0$$

$$\int_0^{2\pi} \sin^2 \theta \cos \theta d\theta = \left[\frac{\sin^3 \theta}{3} \right]_0^{2\pi} = 0 \implies F_D = 0$$

D'Alembert's Paradox (1752)

The prediction of zero drag force for a body moving through an incompressible, inviscid, and irrotational fluid is known as **D'Alembert's Paradox**.

This prediction directly contradicts physical observation, where all real fluids exert a drag force. This paradox was resolved in 1904 by Ludwig Prandtl with the introduction of the **Boundary Layer Theory**. For high Reynolds number flows of fluids with small but non-zero viscosity, viscous effects are concentrated within a thin boundary layer near the solid wall. This layer experiences flow separation, leading to a low-pressure wake behind the body, which generates pressure drag.

12.4 6.7.4 Expert Analysis: Can We Create Lift?

Expert Analysis: Generating Aerodynamic Lift via Circulation

Since a symmetric, non-rotating cylinder in a uniform flow yields zero lift and drag, we ask: *How can we modify this system to generate lift?*

We can achieve this by superimposing a **free vortex** of circulation Γ centered at the origin onto the cylinder flow. The combined stream function becomes:

$$\Psi = U_0 \left(1 - \frac{a^2}{r^2} \right) r \sin \theta - \frac{\Gamma}{2\pi} \ln \left(\frac{r}{a} \right)$$

On the cylinder surface $r = a$, the radial velocity remains $v_r = 0$, but the azimuthal velocity is:

$$v_\theta|_{r=a} = -2U_0 \sin \theta - \frac{\Gamma}{2\pi a}$$

This asymmetry in velocity speeds up the flow on the top of the cylinder (where $\sin \theta > 0$, and the vortex velocity adds to the uniform flow) and slows it down on the bottom. According to Bernoulli's equation, this velocity difference results in lower pressure on top and higher pressure on the bottom, generating a net upward lift force.

Integrating the asymmetric surface pressure:

$$F_L = - \int_0^{2\pi} p_s \sin \theta a d\theta = -\rho U_0 \Gamma$$

This fundamental relation is known as the **Kutta-Joukowski theorem**. It demonstrates that circulation is the physical mechanism behind the generation of lift. This principle explains the Magnus effect (the lateral force on spinning sports balls) and governs lift generation on complex aerodynamic airfoils.